



# ■ CS177 Bioinformatics: Software Development and Applications

## Lecture 1: Basics of Molecular Biology

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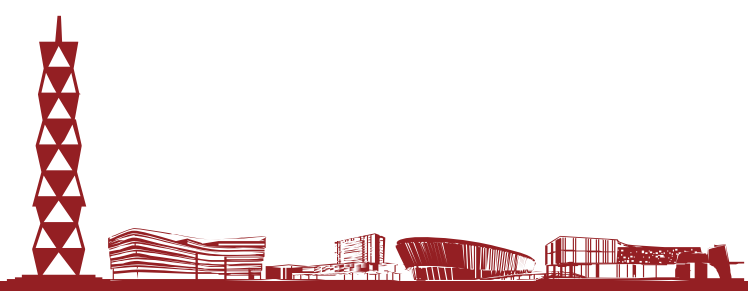
Spring, 2025



# Learning objectives

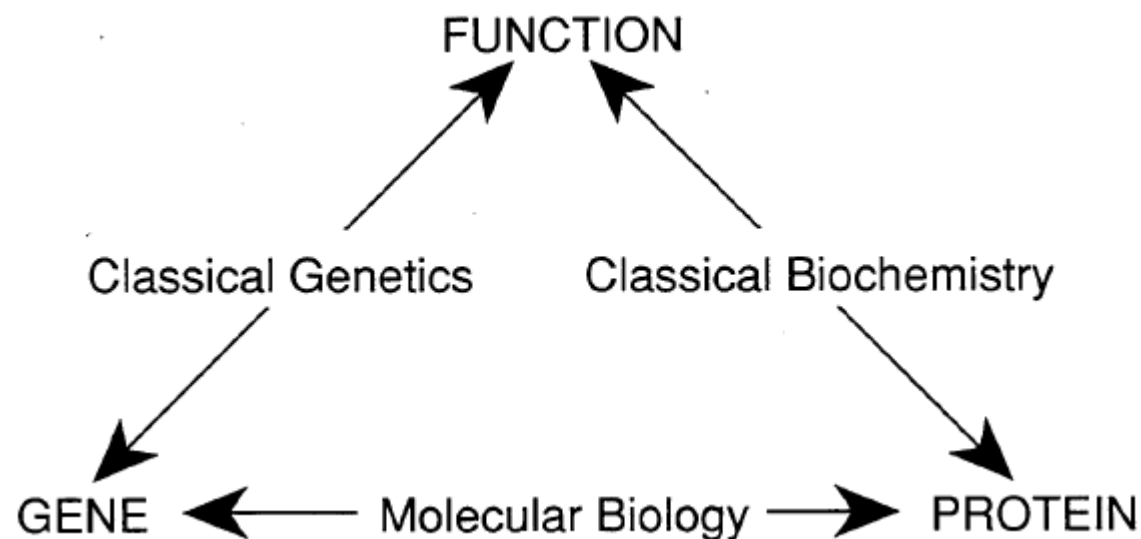


- At the end of this lecture, you will be able to:
  - Explain basic terminology of molecular biology
  - Describe the basic building blocks of life
  - Describe the Central Dogma of Molecular Biology, i.e. how information is transmitted from DNA to proteins
  - Describe the basic processes of RNA transcription and protein translation





# Historical roots of molecular biology



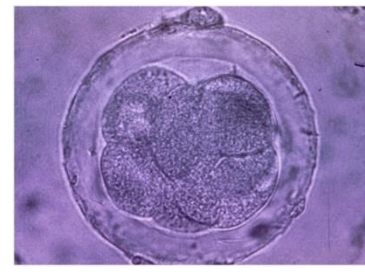
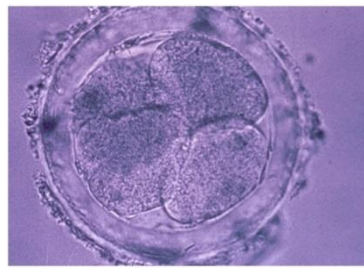
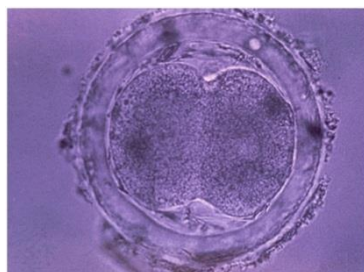
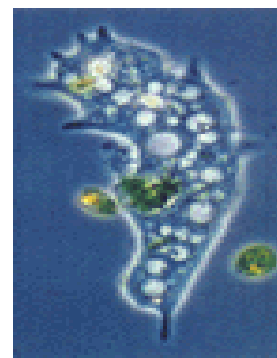
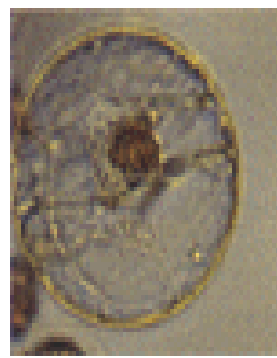
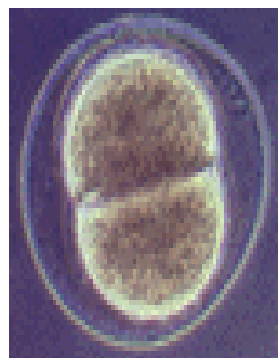
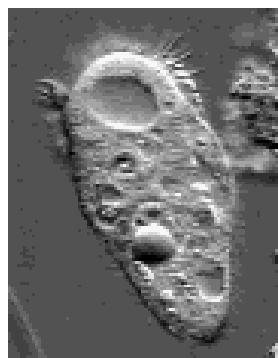
From Fig. 1.10, Lander and Waterman's chapter (1995)

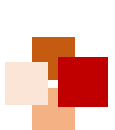
- **Molecular biology** grew out of two experimental approaches to studying biological function: "Biochemistry" and "Genetics"
  - **Biochemistry**: break up the molecules in a living organism, with the goal of purifying and characterizing the chemical components responsible for carrying out a particular function
  - **Genetics**: study mutant organisms that are intact except for a single component



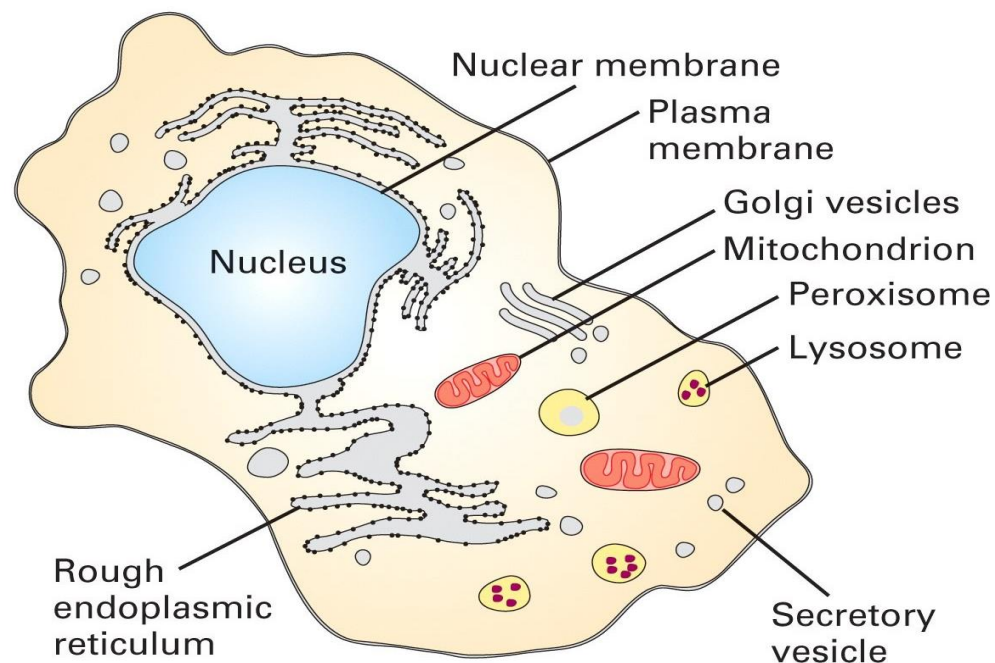


# What Is Life Made of?





# Life begins with Cell



- A cell is a smallest structural unit of an organism that is capable of independent functioning
- All cells have some common features



# ■ What is a cell made of?



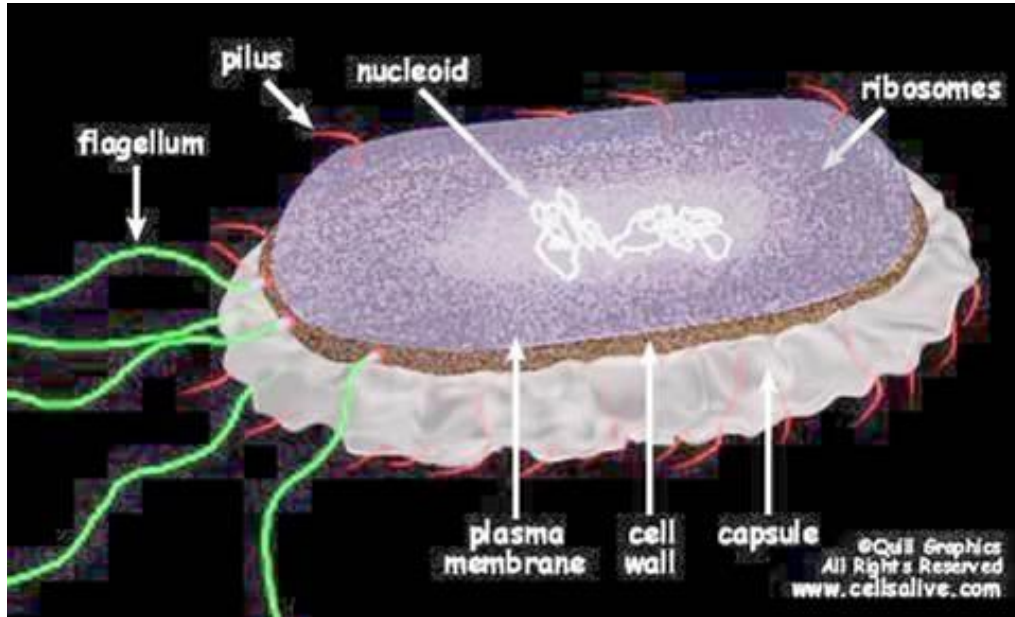
- **Chemical composition** - by weight
  - **70%** water
  - **7%** small molecules
    - salts
    - lipids
    - amino acids
    - nucleotides
  - **23%** macromolecules
    - proteins
    - polysaccharides
    - lipids



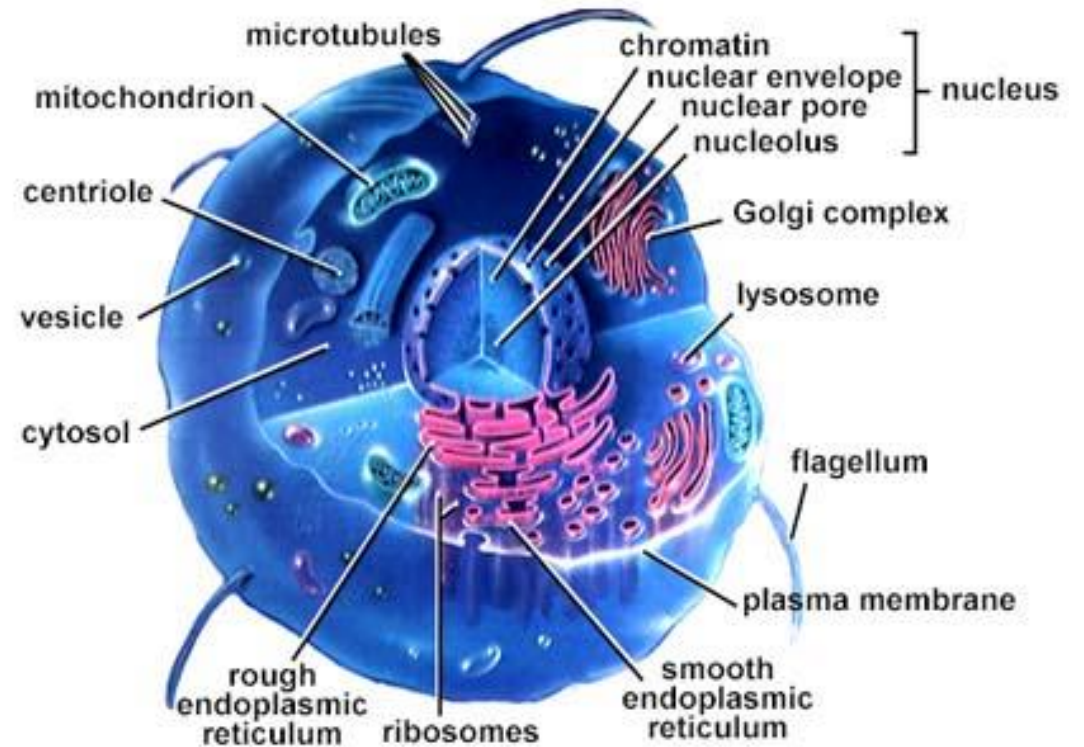
# Types of cells: Prokaryotes vs. Eukaryotes



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A prokaryotic cell



A eukaryotic cell





# Prokaryotes vs. Eukaryotes



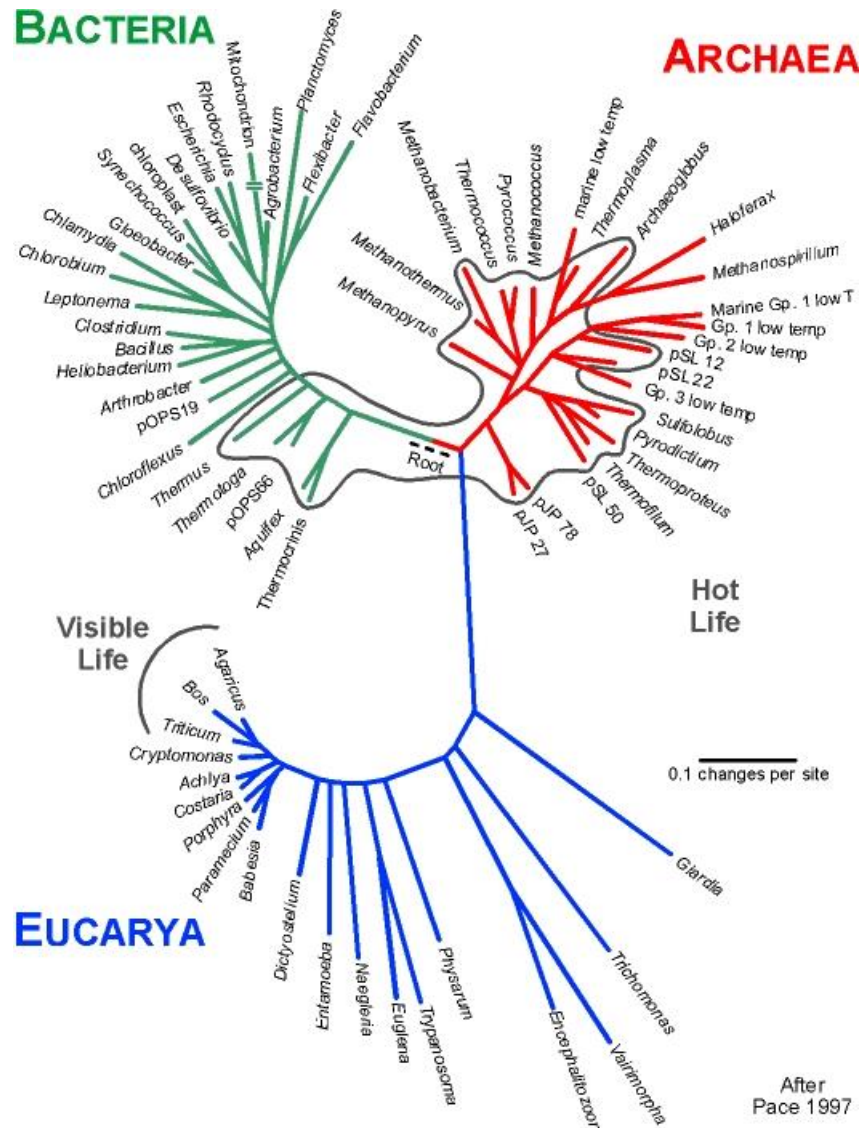
| Prokaryotes                               | Eukaryotes             |
|-------------------------------------------|------------------------|
| Single cell                               | Single or multi cell   |
| No nucleus                                | Nucleus                |
| No organelles                             | Organelles             |
| One piece of circular DNA                 | Chromosomes            |
| No mRNA post transcriptional modification | Exons/Introns splicing |







# Kingdoms of life



- According to the most recent evidence, there are three main branches in the tree of life.
- Prokaryotes include Archaea ( "ancient ones" ) and bacteria.
- Eukaryotes are kingdom Eukarya which includes plants, animals, fungi and certain algae.

From Pace NR (1997)  
*Science* 276:734



# Terminology

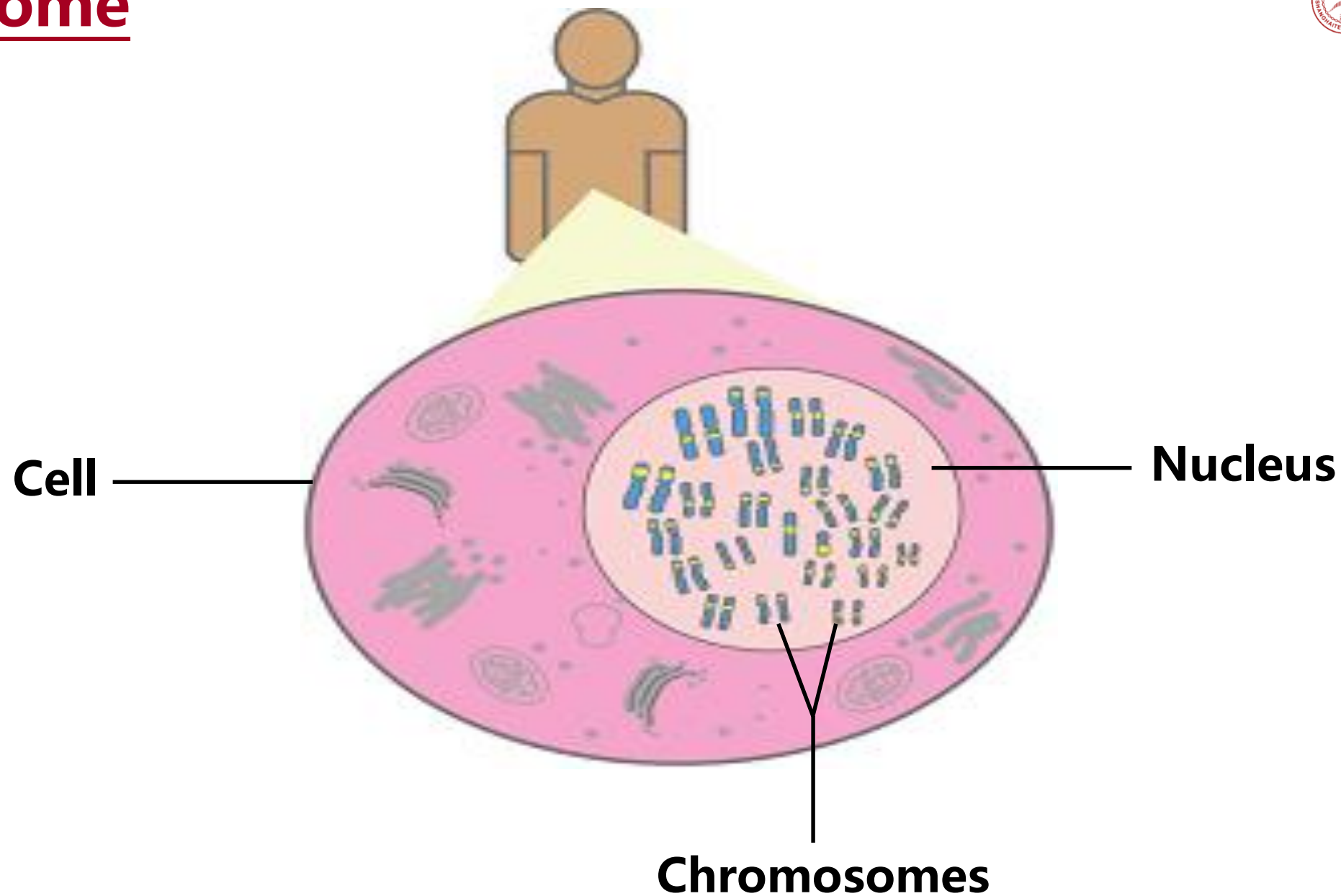
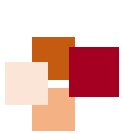


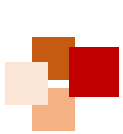
- Genome: an organism's genetic material
  - The **genome** is an organism's complete set of DNA
    - A bacteria contains about 600,000 DNA base pairs (bp)
    - Human and mouse genomes have some 3 billion bp
  - The human genome has 24 *distinct* **chromosomes**
    - 22 autosomal chromosome pairs, plus sex-determining X and Y chromosomes
    - Each chromosome contains many **genes**
- Gene: a discrete unit of hereditary information located on the chromosomes and consisting of DNA
  - Basic physical and functional units of heredity
  - Specific sequences of DNA bases that encode instructions on how to make **proteins**
- Nucleotides are biological molecules that form the building blocks of nucleic acids (DNA and RNA)



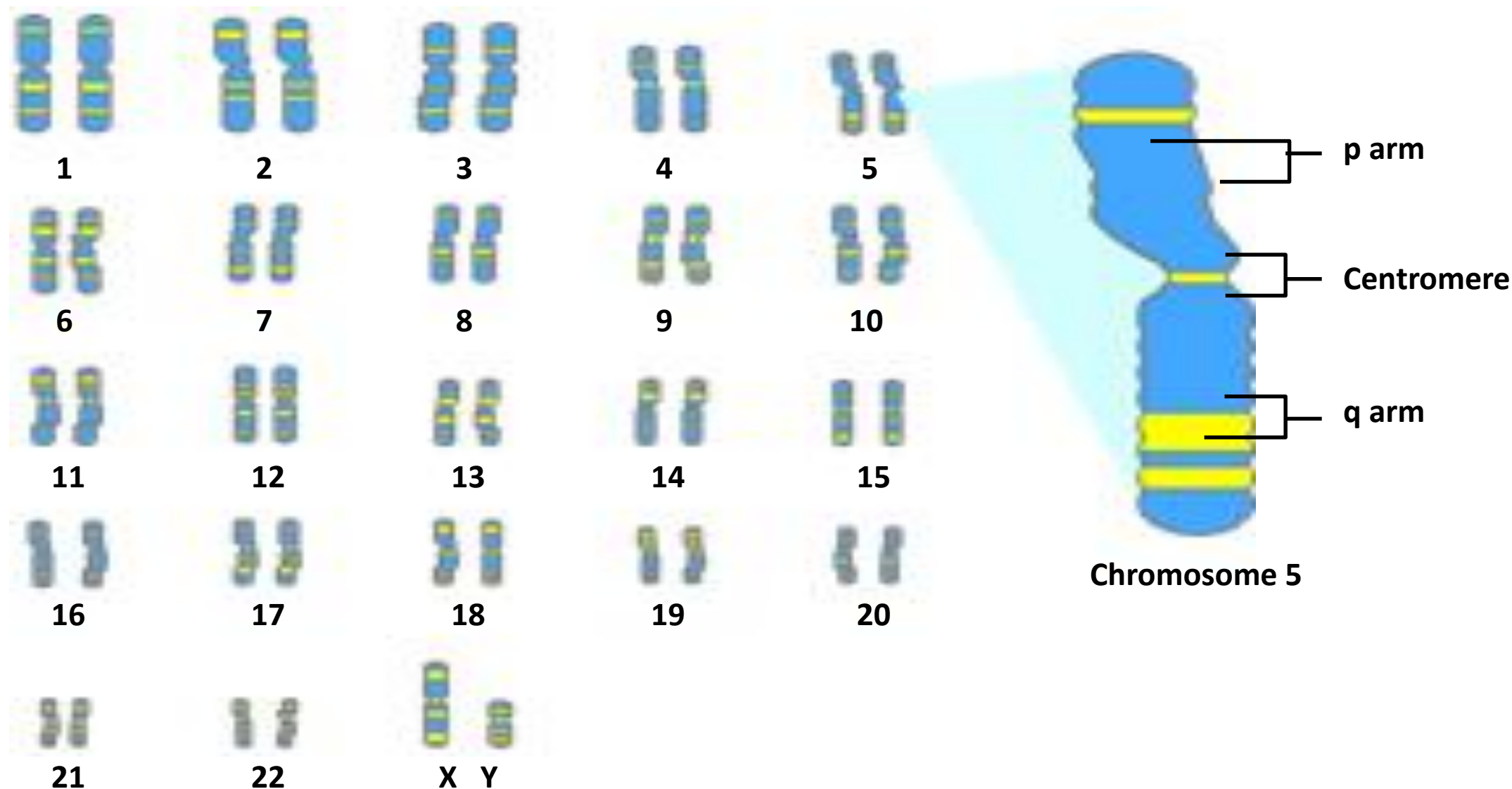
- Proteins
  - Make up the cellular structure
  - Large, complex molecules made up of smaller subunits called **amino acids**
- Amino acids are organic compounds that combine to form proteins
- Genotype: The **g**enetic makeup of an organism
- Phenotype: the **p**hysical expressed traits of an organism







# Chromosome





# Overview of organizations of life



- **Nucleus = library**
- **Chromosomes = bookshelves**
- **Genes = books**
- Almost every cell in an organism contains the same libraries and the same sets of books.
- Books represent almost all the information (DNA) that every cell in the body needs so it can grow and carry out its various functions.





# Cell information and machinery



- Cells store all information to replicate itself
  - Human genome is around 3 billion base pairs (bp) long
  - Almost every cell in human body contains the same set of genes
  - But not all genes are used or expressed by those cells
- Machinery:
  - Collect and manufacture components
  - Carry out replication
  - Kick-start its new offspring

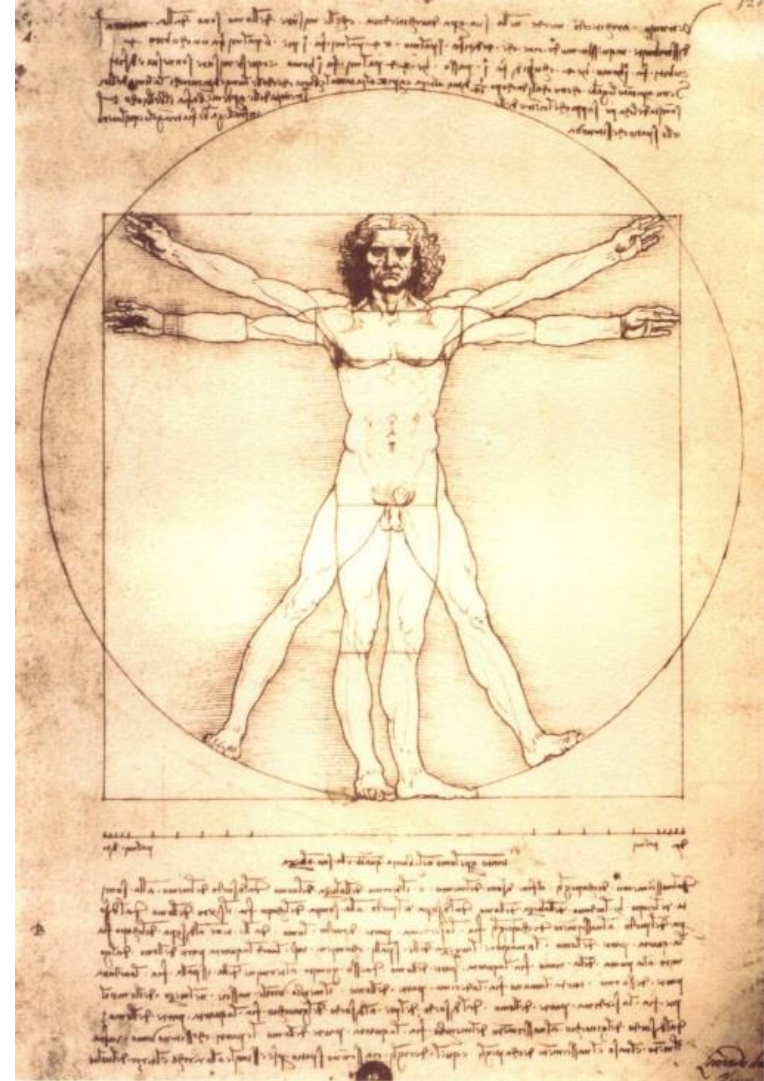




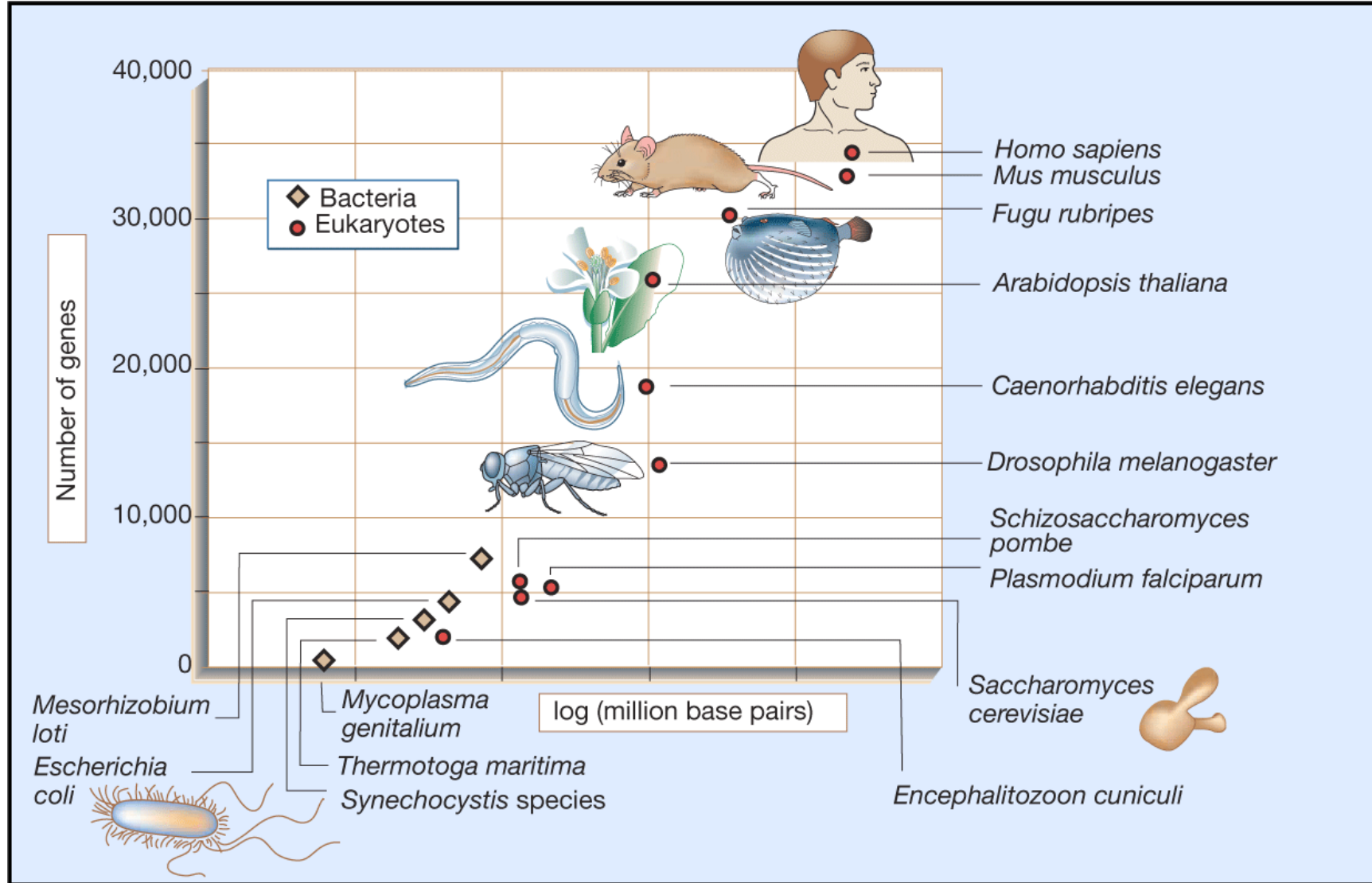
# Cells in the human body



- About  $40\text{-}60 \times 10^{12}$  cells in total
- Each cell
  - 23 pairs of chromosomes
  - 3.2 billion pairs of DNA bases
  - ~ 25,000 genes



# Sizes of genomes and numbers of genes





# The Central Dogma of Molecular Biology





# All life depends on 3 critical molecules



- Deoxyribonucleic acid (**DNA**)
  - Hold information on how cell works
- Ribonucleic acid (**RNA**)
  - Act to transfer short pieces of information to different parts of a cell
  - Provide templates to synthesize proteins
- **Protein**
  - Form enzymes that send signals to other cells and regulate gene activity
  - Form body's major components (e.g. hair, skin, etc.)



# Watson & Crick – “...the secret of life”



- J. Watson: a zoologist, F. Crick: a physicist
- “In 1947 Crick knew no biology and practically no organic chemistry or crystallography.”
- Applying Chagraff’ s rules and the X-ray image from Rosalind Franklin, they constructed a “tinkertoy” model showing the double helix
- Their 1953 *Nature* paper: “It has not escaped our notice that the specific pairing we have postulated immediately suggests a possible copying mechanism for the genetic material.”



Watson & Crick with DNA model



Rosalind Franklin with X-ray image of DNA

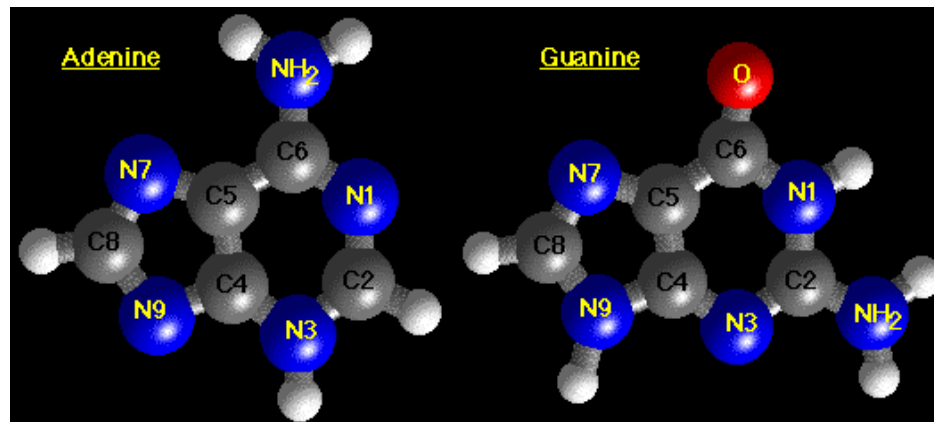




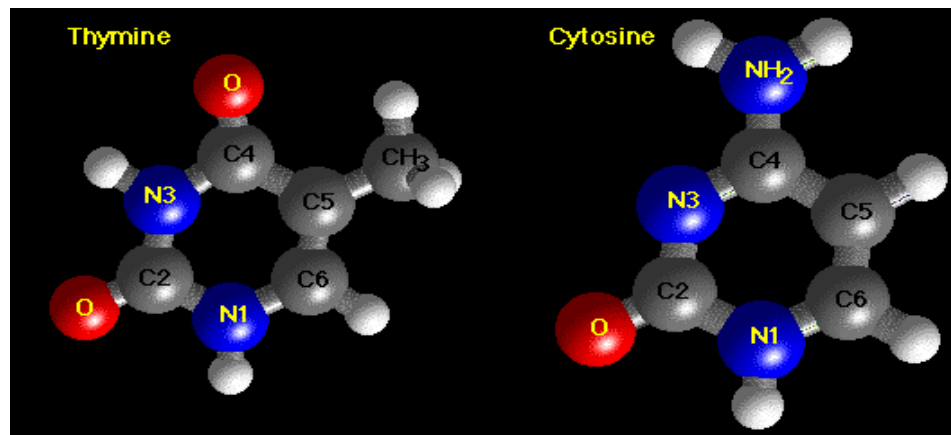
# DNA base structure



- Structures of A & G (Purines)



- Structures of T & C (Pyrimidines)

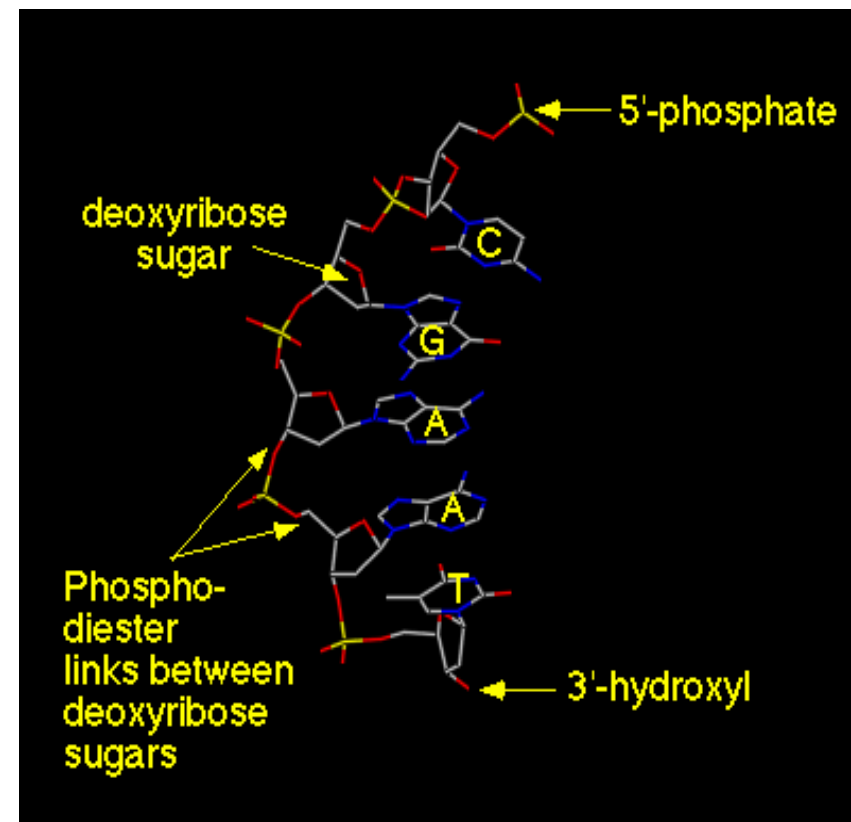




# DNA backbone



- Alternating backbone of deoxyribose and phosphodiester groups
- Chain has a direction (known as **polarity**), 5'- to 3'- from top to bottom
- Oxygens (red atoms) of phosphates are polar and negatively charged
- A, G, C, and T bases extend away from chain, and stack on-top each other
- Bases are **hydrophobic**



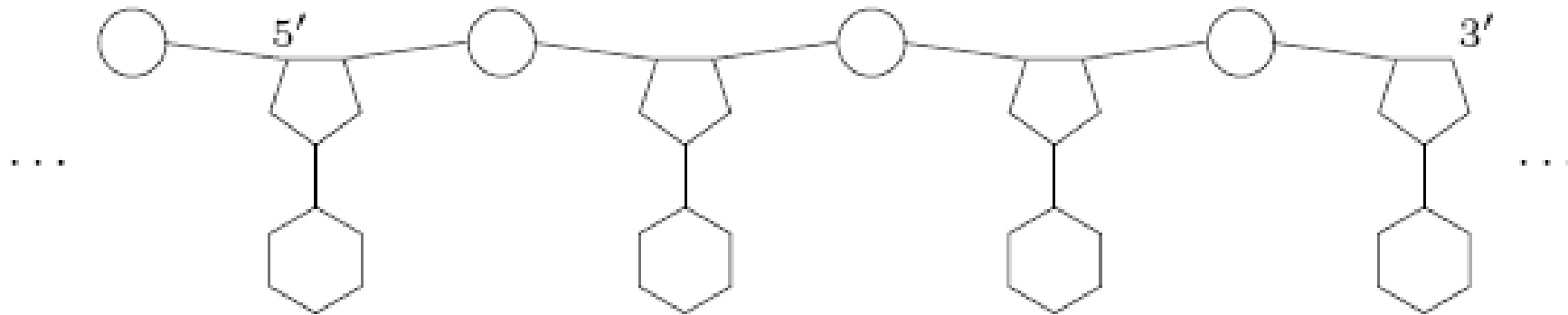




# Nucleic acid



- Nucleic acids are responsible for encoding and storing the heredity information
- Schematic view of a nucleotide chain in the 5' - 3' direction
- Two different types of nucleic acids
  - Deoxyribonucleic acid (DNA)
  - Ribonucleic acid (RNA)



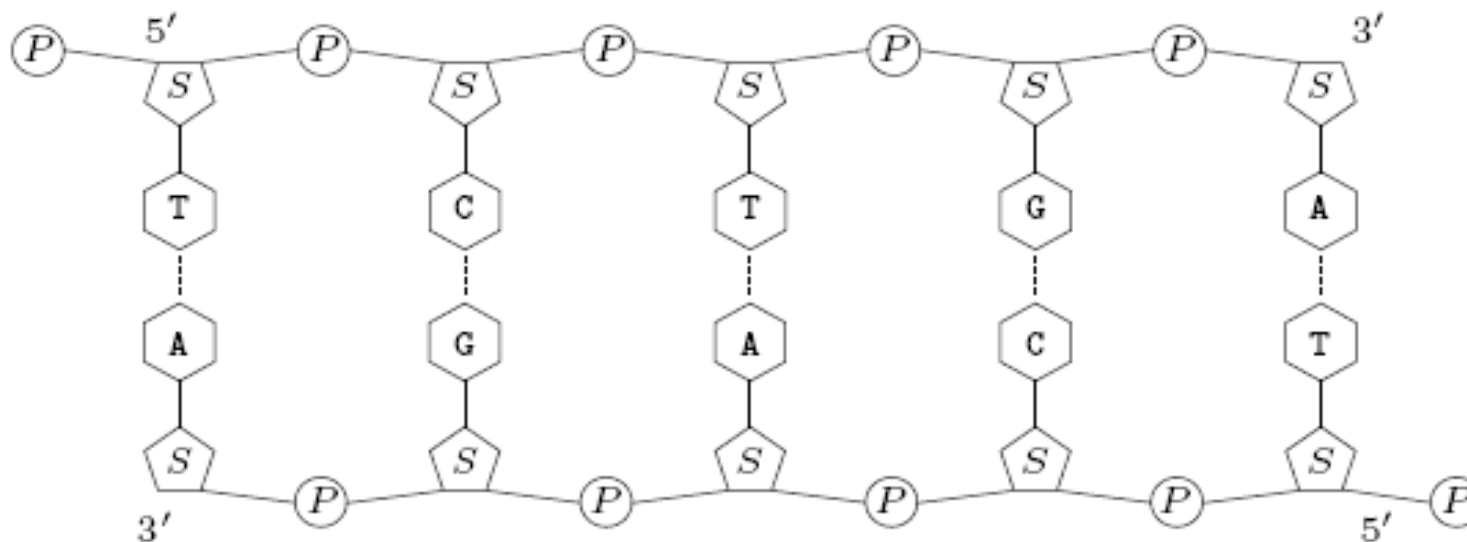


# Example



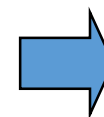
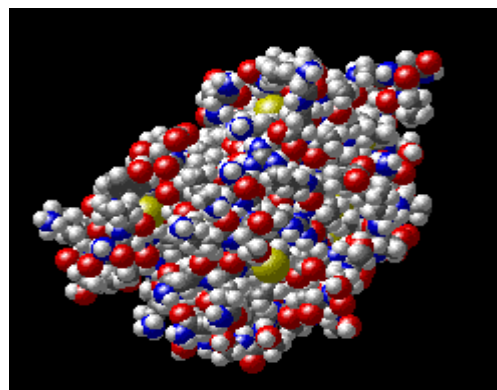
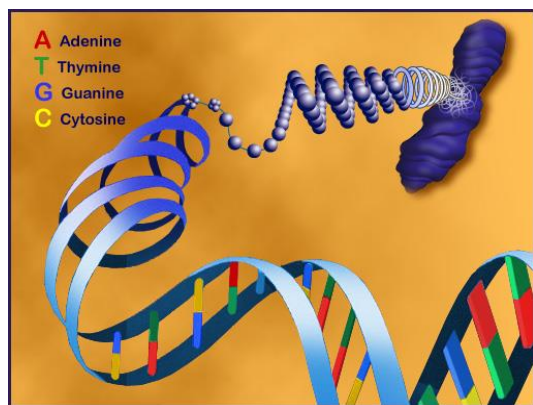
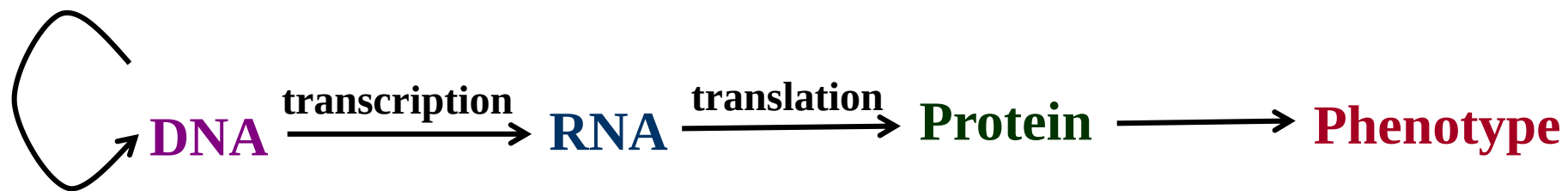
- Let  $s = \text{TCTGA}$  be the string representation of a DNA strand
- Then  $s^{\sim} = \text{TCAGA}$  is the **reverse complement** of  $s$ ,
  - Unit of measurement: bp (standing for base pair)
  - By convention, DNA sequences are written in a 5' -to-3' direction

$s$  : 5' : : : TCTGA : : : 3'  
 $s^{\sim}$  : 3' : : : AGACT : : : 5'





# Genetic information



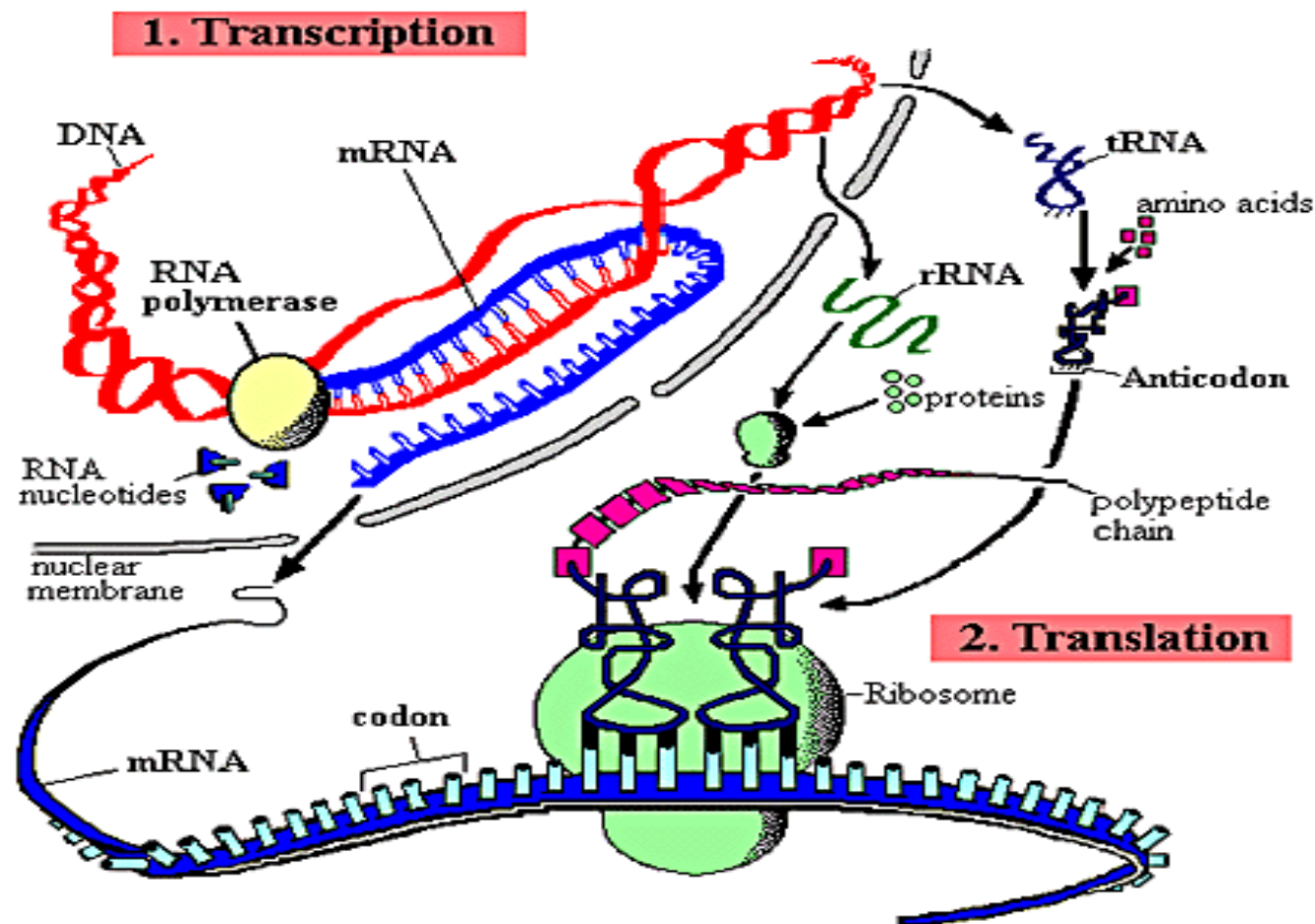


# The Central Dogma of molecular biology

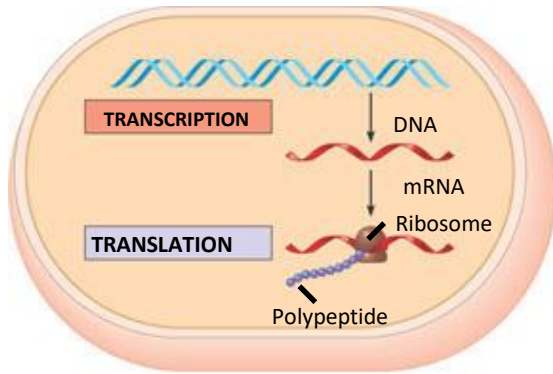


- A fundamental principle of molecular biology

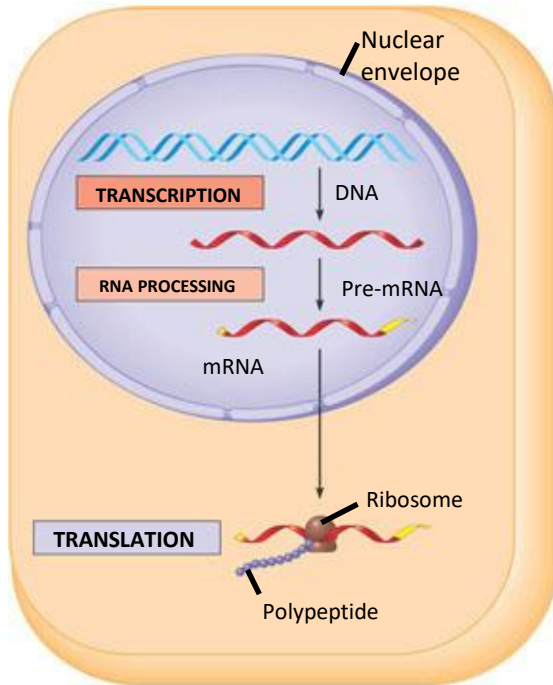
- Genetic information flows from DNA to RNA to protein



# Transcription and translation in the flow of genetic information



- (a) **Prokaryotic cell.** In a cell lacking a nucleus, mRNA produced by transcription is immediately translated without additional processing.



- (b) **Eukaryotic cell.** The nucleus provides a separate compartment for transcription. The original RNA transcript, called pre-mRNA, is processed in various ways before leaving the nucleus as mRNA.



# Recap



- In this lecture, we have learned:
  - The historical and intellectual roots of molecular biology
  - What is life made of?
  - The Central Dogma of Molecular Biology
  - How are RNA produced by transcription?
  - How are proteins produced by translation?





# References



- E. Lander and M. Waterman (1995). **"The Secrets of Life: A Mathematician's Introduction to Molecular Biology"** , Chapter 1 of the National Research Council report entitled *"Calculating the Secrets of Life: Contributions of the Mathematical Sciences to Molecular Biology"* , National Academy Press, Washington D.C., 1995.
- N. Jones and P. Pevzner (2004). **"Molecular Biology Primer"** , Chapter 3 of their book *"An Introduction to Bioinformatics Algorithms"* , MIT Press, 2004.
- B. Alberts, et al. **"Molecular Biology of the Cell"** , 7<sup>th</sup> Edition, New York: W. W. Norton & Company, 2022.





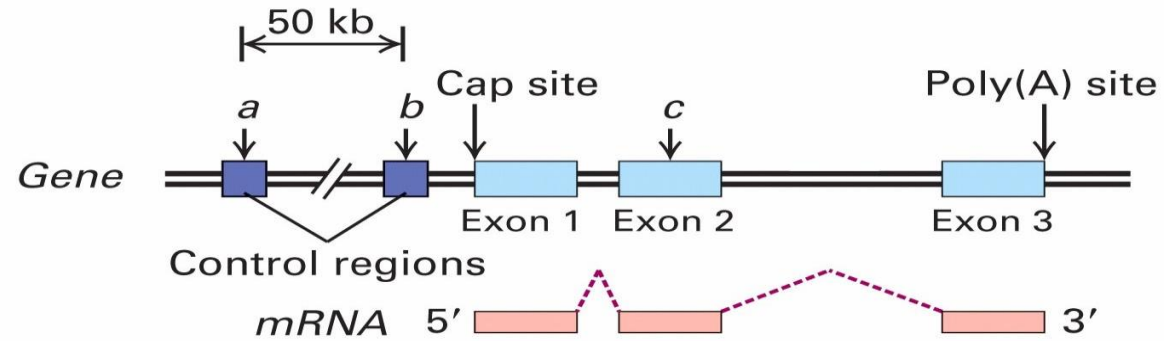


# Appendix A: Transcriptional Regulation





# Structure of a gene

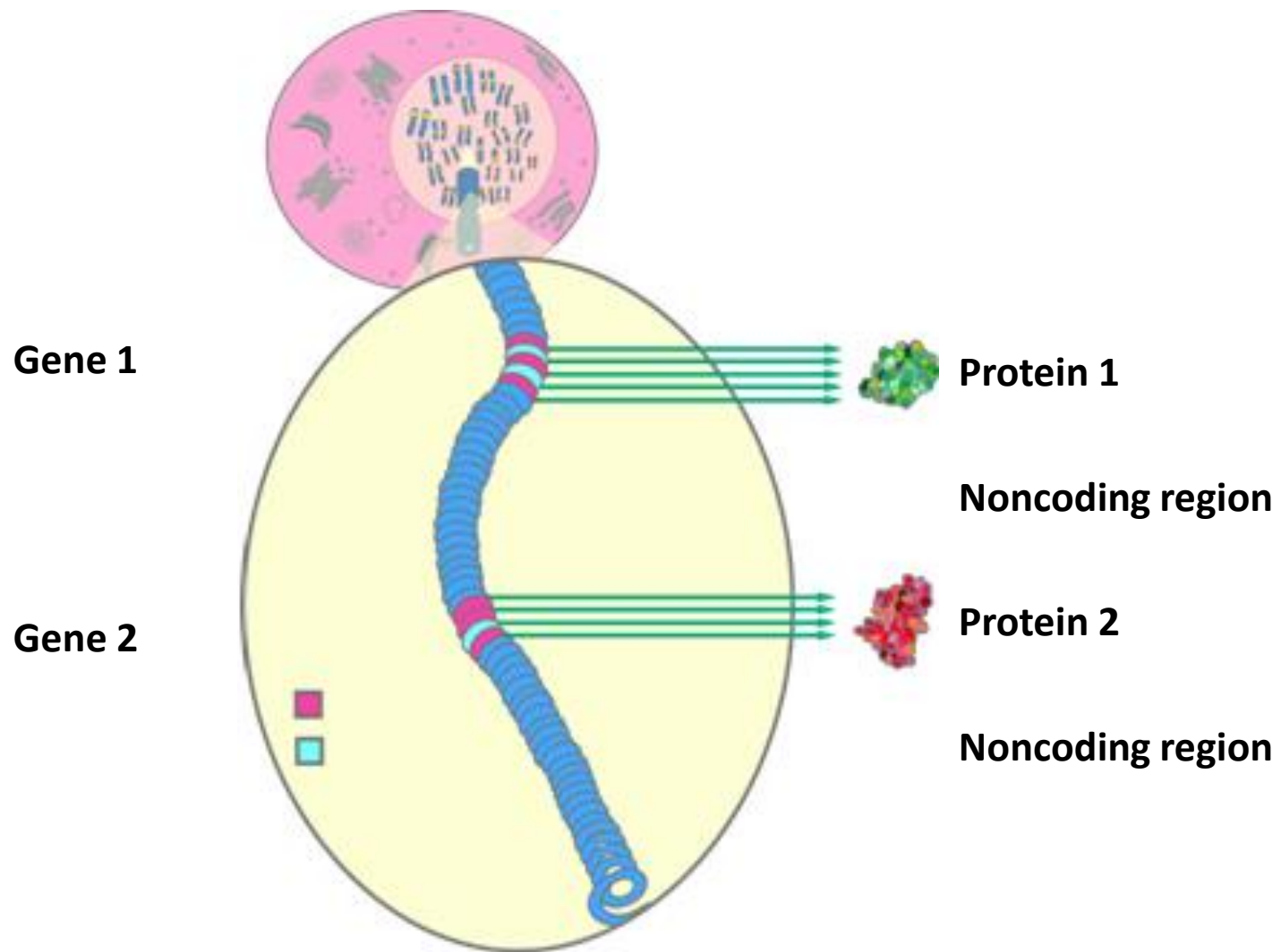


- Regulatory regions: up to 50 kb upstream of +1 site
- Exons: Protein coding and untranslated regions (UTR)  
1 to 178 exons per gene (mean 8.8)  
8 bp to 17 kb per exon (mean 145 bp)
- Introns: Splice acceptor and donor sites, junk DNA  
Average 1 kb – 50 kb per intron
- Gene size: Largest – 2.4 Mb (Dystrophin). Mean – 27 kb.





# Noncoding regions





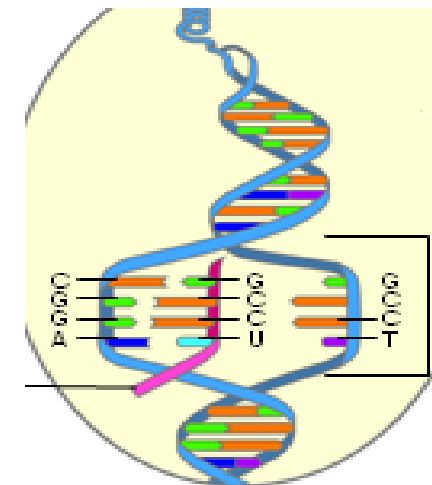
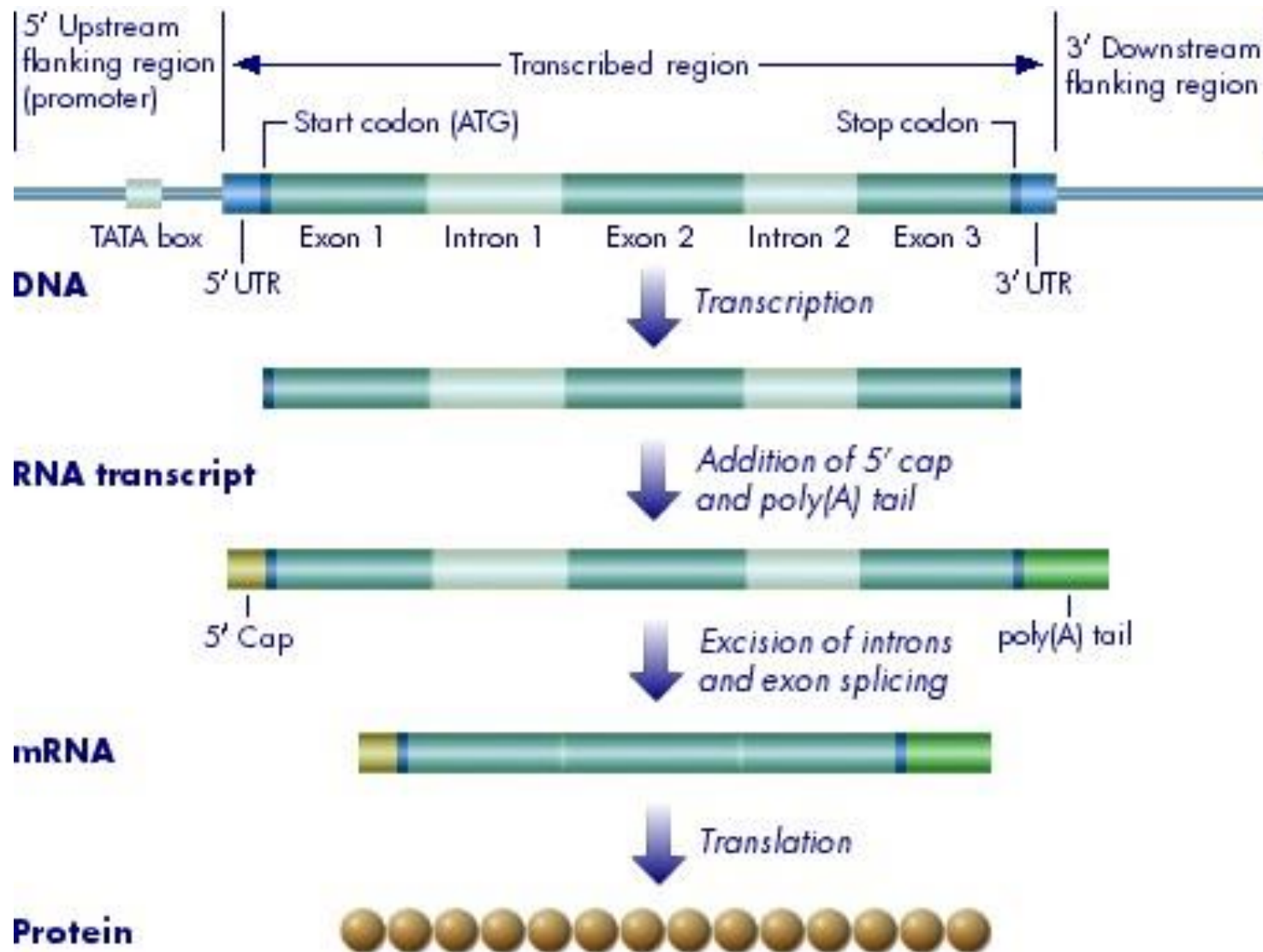
# mRNA transcription



- **mRNA (messenger RNA)** carries the information encoded in DNA out of the nucleus to the protein assembly machinery, called the **ribosome**, in the cytoplasm.
- **mRNA transcription** - the synthesis of mRNA from a DNA
  - coding portions of a gene, exons, interrupted by introns
  - editing process removes the introns, to make a **mature mRNA**

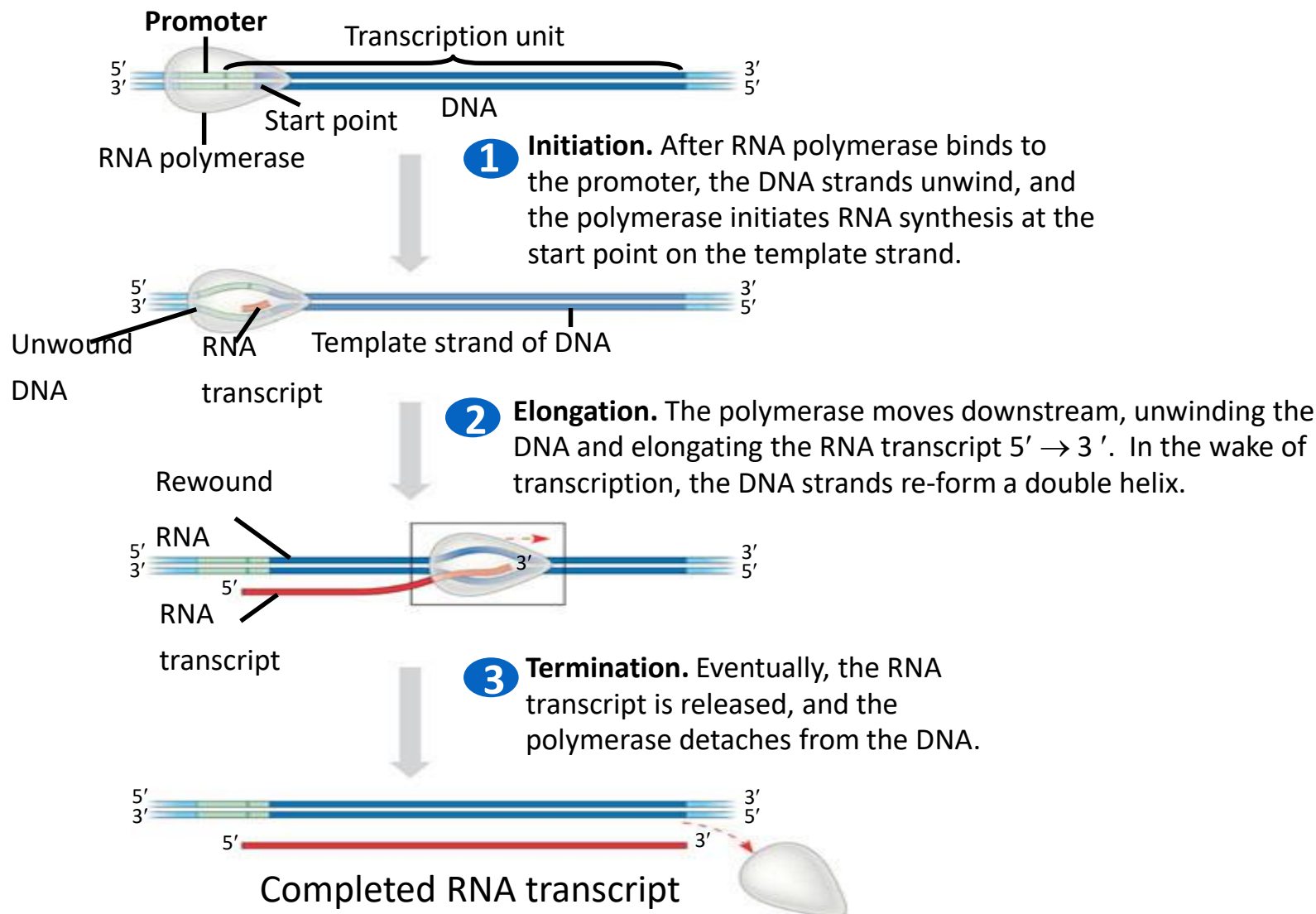


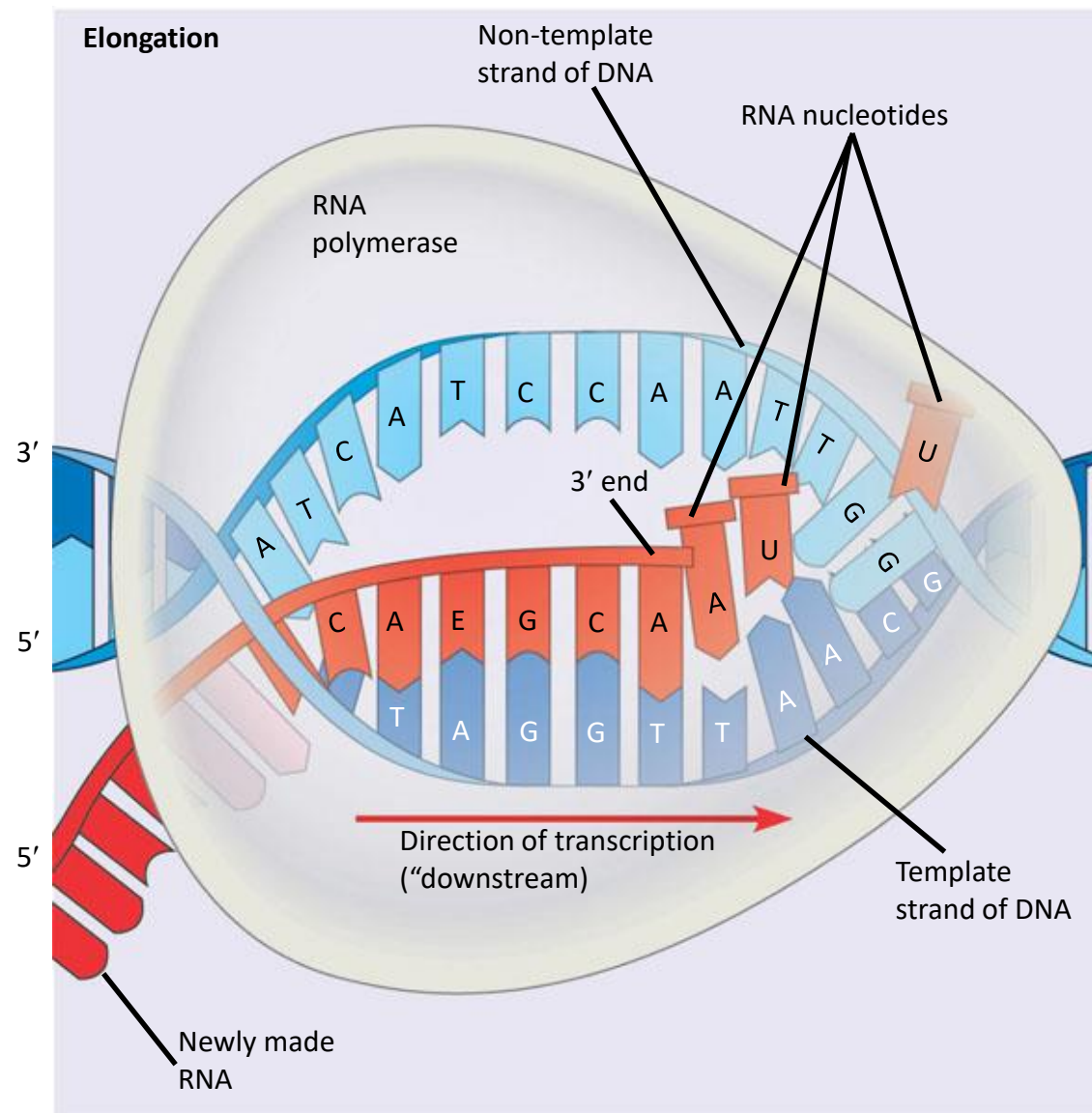
# mRNA transcription process





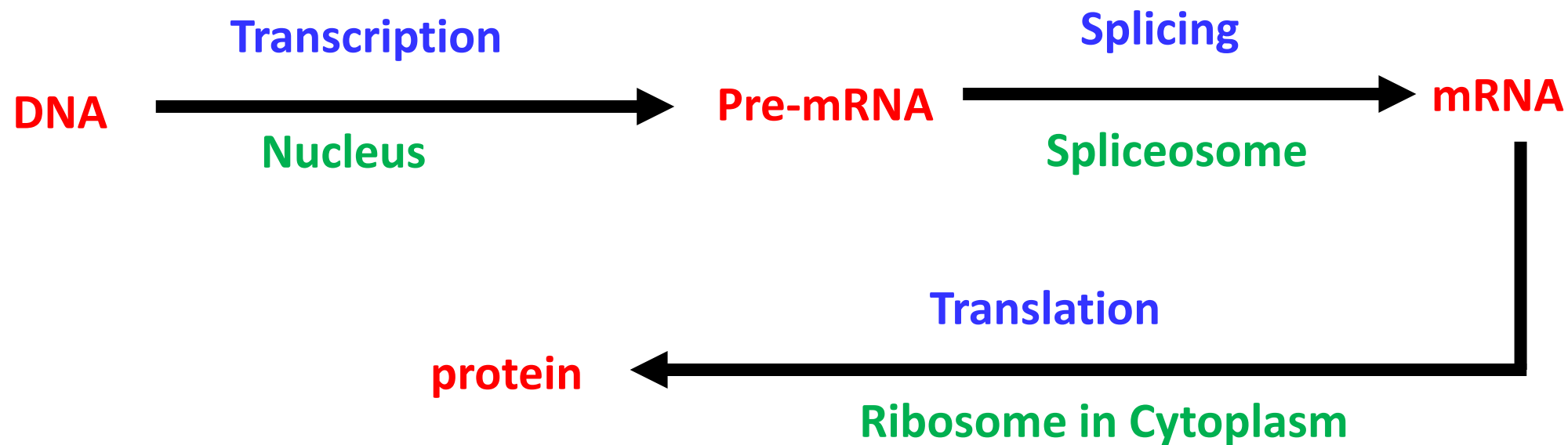
# Initiation, elongation, and termination







# Central dogma revisited



- **Base Pairing Rule:** A and T (or U) is held together by 2 hydrogen bonds and G and C is held together by 3 hydrogen bonds
- **Note:** Some mRNA stays as RNA (e.g. tRNA, rRNA)

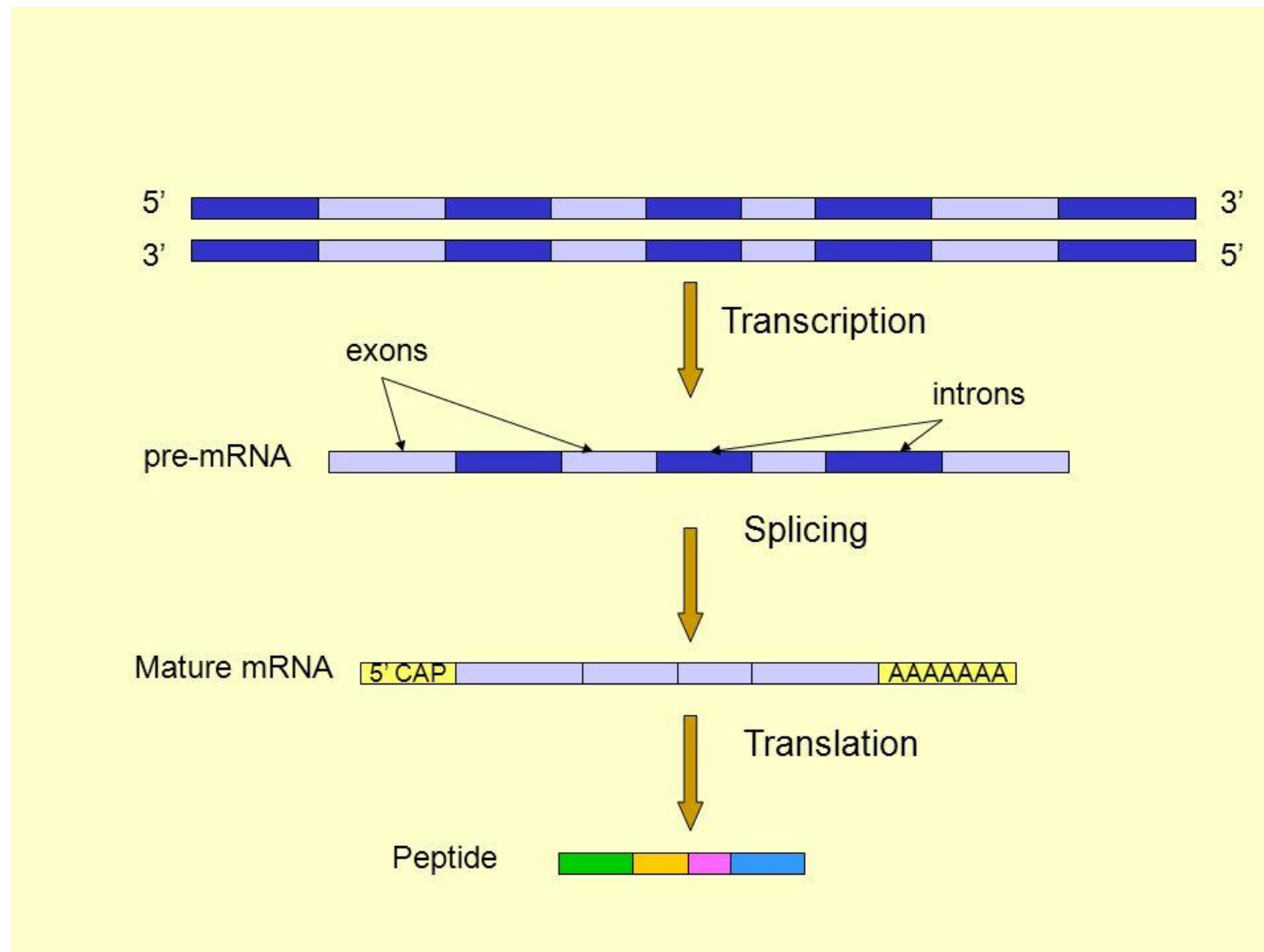




# Splicing



- Splice variants create an enormous **diversity** of proteins
  - ~25,000 genes in humans give rise to 200,000 to 2,000,000 different proteins
- Splice variants may have very diverse functions



# Alternative splicing

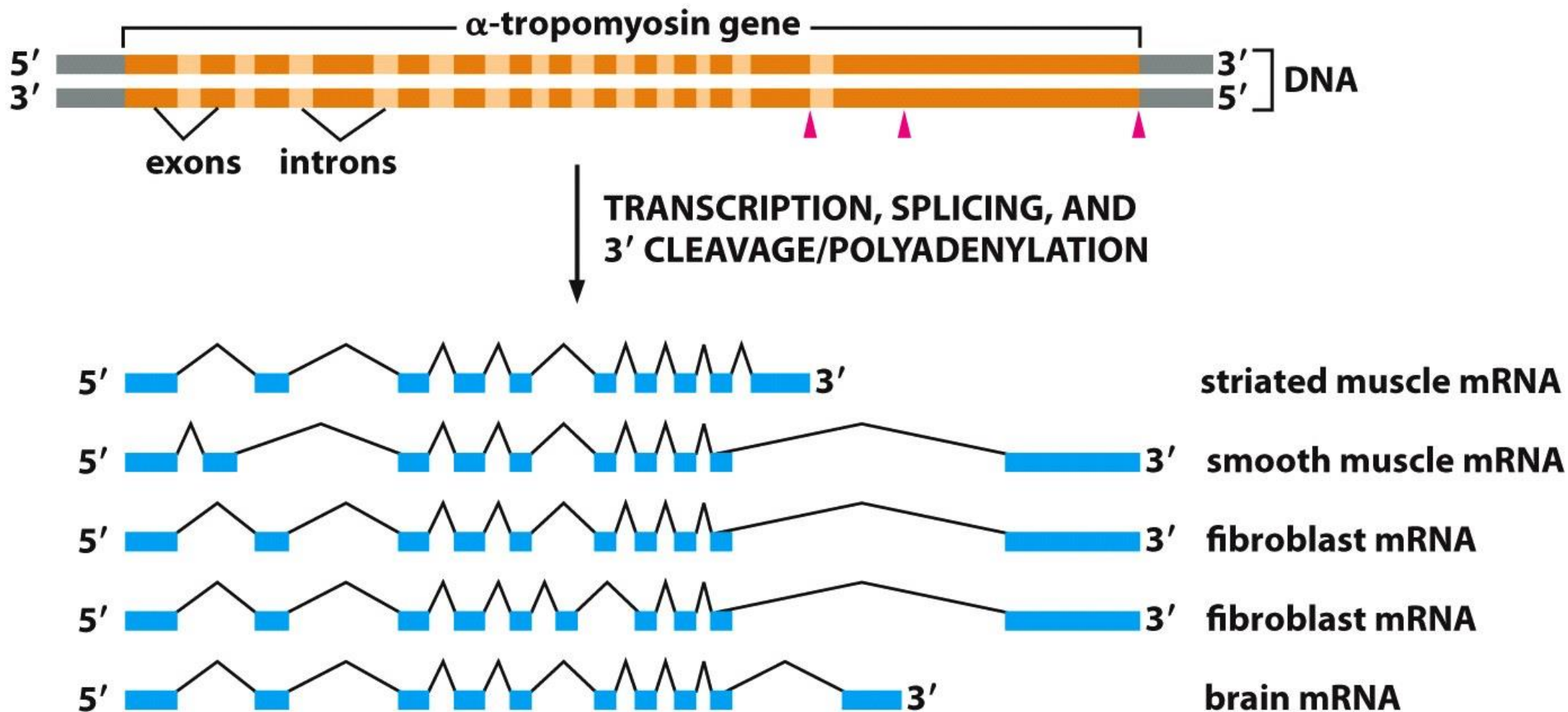


Figure 7-21 Essential Cell Biology 3/e (© Garland Science 2010)



# Appendix B: Protein Translation





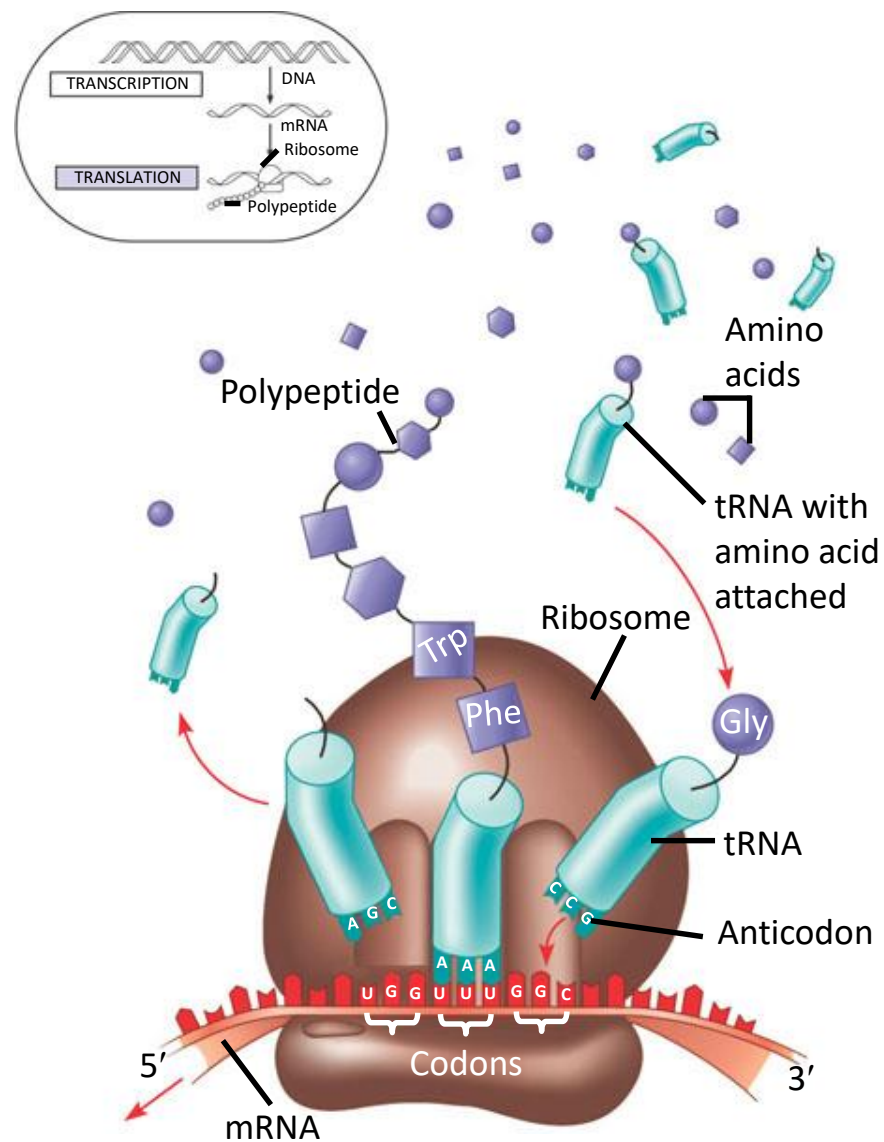
# Protein translation



- DNA - carrier of genetic information
- Protein - do the bulk of the work in the cell
  - A long chain containing as many as 20 different kinds of amino acids
  - The order & number of amino acids determine the shape and function of the protein
- Each cell contains thousands of different proteins
- The ribosomal complex builds a protein one amino acid at a time, with the order of amino acids determined precisely by the order of the **codons** in the mRNA



# Translation: the basic concept





# Terminology



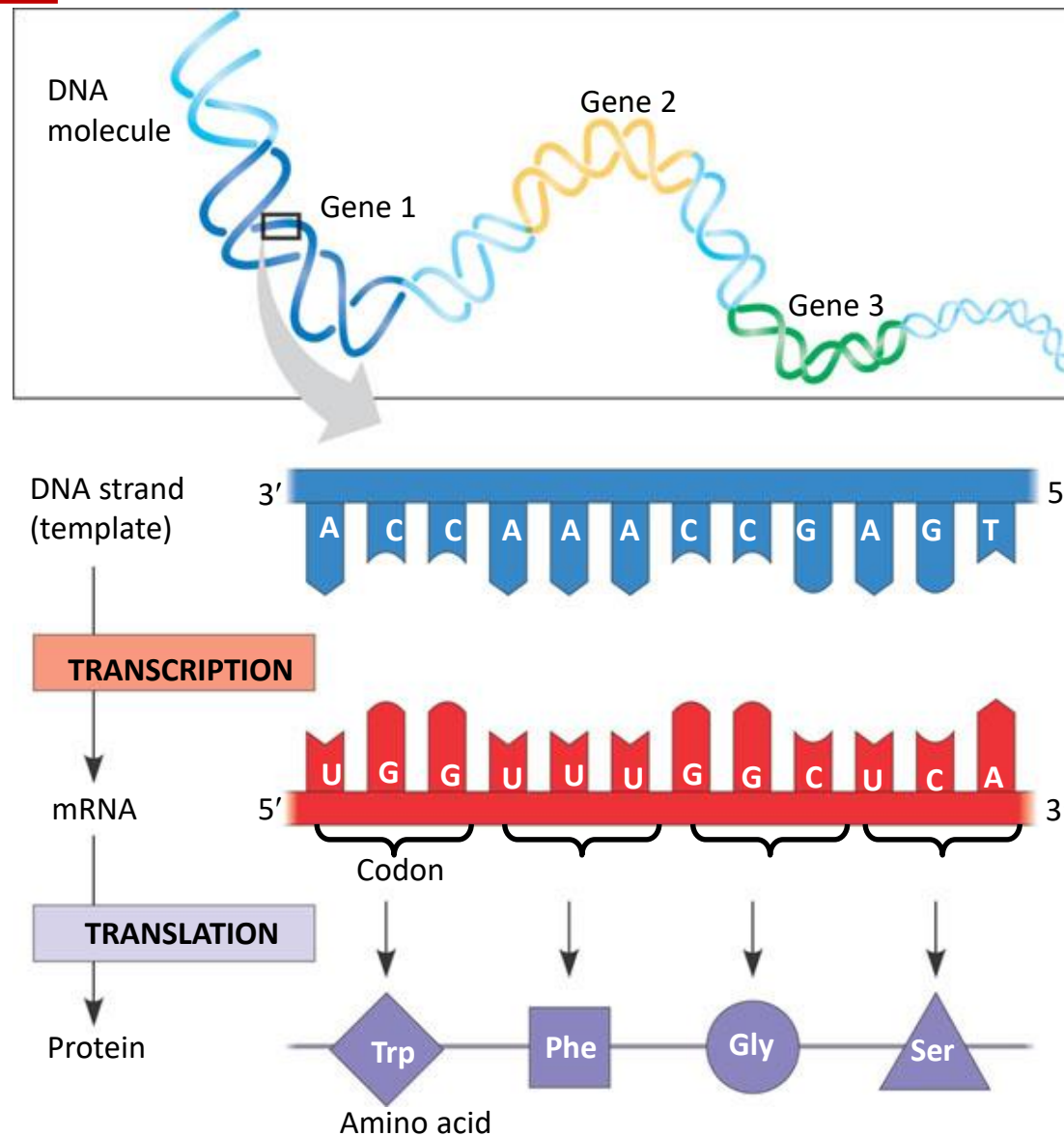
- **Codon**: The sequence of 3 nucleotides in DNA/RNA that encodes for a specific amino acid
- **mRNA (messenger RNA)**: A ribonucleic acid whose sequence is complementary to that of a protein-coding gene in DNA
- **Ribosome**: The organelle that synthesizes polypeptides under the direction of mRNA
- **rRNA (ribosomal RNA)**: The RNA molecules that constitute the bulk of the ribosome, provide structural scaffolding for the ribosome and catalyze peptide bond formation
- **tRNA (transfer RNA)**: The small L-shaped RNAs that deliver specific amino acids to ribosomes according to the sequence of a bound mRNA







# The triplet code



# 64(=4<sup>3</sup>) RNA triplet codons and their corresponding amino acids



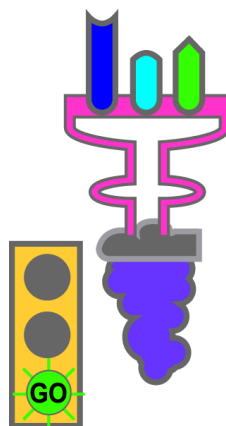
|          |   | 2nd base                                         |                      |                           |                          |
|----------|---|--------------------------------------------------|----------------------|---------------------------|--------------------------|
|          |   | U                                                | C                    | A                         | G                        |
| 1st base | U | UUU (Phe/F)Phenylalanine                         | UCU (Ser/S)Serine    | UAU (Tyr/Y)Tyrosine       | UGU (Cys/C)Cysteine      |
|          |   | UUC (Phe/F)Phenylalanine                         | UCC (Ser/S)Serine    | UAC (Tyr/Y)Tyrosine       | UGC (Cys/C)Cysteine      |
|          |   | UUA (Leu/L)Leucine                               | UCA (Ser/S)Serine    | UAA Ochre ( <i>Stop</i> ) | UGA Opal ( <i>Stop</i> ) |
|          |   | UUG (Leu/L)Leucine                               | UCG (Ser/S)Serine    | UAG Amber ( <i>Stop</i> ) | UGG (Trp/W)Tryptophan    |
|          | C | CUU (Leu/L)Leucine                               | CCU (Pro/P)Proline   | CAU (His/H)Histidine      | CGU (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          |   | CUC (Leu/L)Leucine                               | CCC (Pro/P)Proline   | CAC (His/H)Histidine      | CGC (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          |   | CUA (Leu/L)Leucine                               | CCA (Pro/P)Proline   | CAA (Gln/Q)Glutamine      | CGA (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          |   | CUG (Leu/L)Leucine                               | CCG (Pro/P)Proline   | CAG (Gln/Q)Glutamine      | CGG (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          | A | AUU (Ile/I)Isoleucine                            | ACU (Thr/T)Threonine | AAU (Asn/N)Asparagine     | AGU (Ser/S)Serine        |
|          |   | AUC (Ile/I)Isoleucine                            | ACC (Thr/T)Threonine | AAC (Asn/N)Asparagine     | AGC (Ser/S)Serine        |
|          |   | AUA (Ile/I)Isoleucine                            | ACA (Thr/T)Threonine | AAA (Lys/K)Lysine         | AGA (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          |   | AUG (Met/M)Methionine, <i>Start</i> <sup>1</sup> | ACG (Thr/T)Threonine | AAG (Lys/K)Lysine         | AGG (Arg/R)Arginine      |
|          | G | GUU (Val/V)Valine                                | GCU (Ala/A)Alanine   | GAU (Asp/D)Aspartic acid  | GGU (Gly/G)Glycine       |
|          |   | GUC (Val/V)Valine                                | GCC (Ala/A)Alanine   | GAC (Asp/D)Aspartic acid  | GGC (Gly/G)Glycine       |
|          |   | GUA (Val/V)Valine                                | GCA (Ala/A)Alanine   | GAA (Glu/E)Glutamic acid  | GGA (Gly/G)Glycine       |
|          |   | GUG (Val/V)Valine                                | GCG (Ala/A)Alanine   | GAG (Glu/E)Glutamic acid  | GGG (Gly/G)Glycine       |



# Types of codons

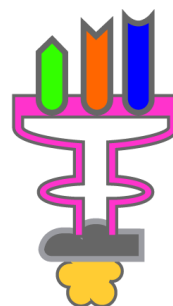


AUG



Methionine

GCA



Alanine

UAA



UAG



UGA





# Protein structure and function



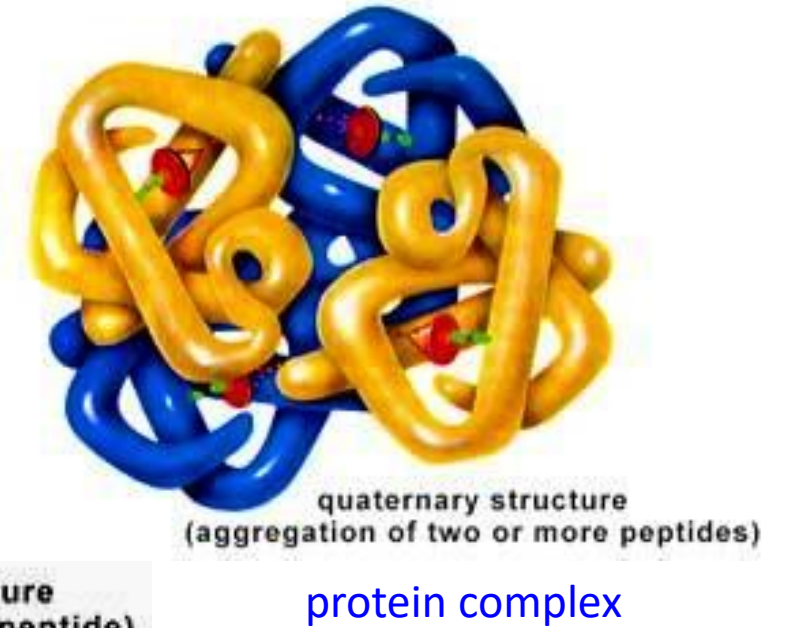
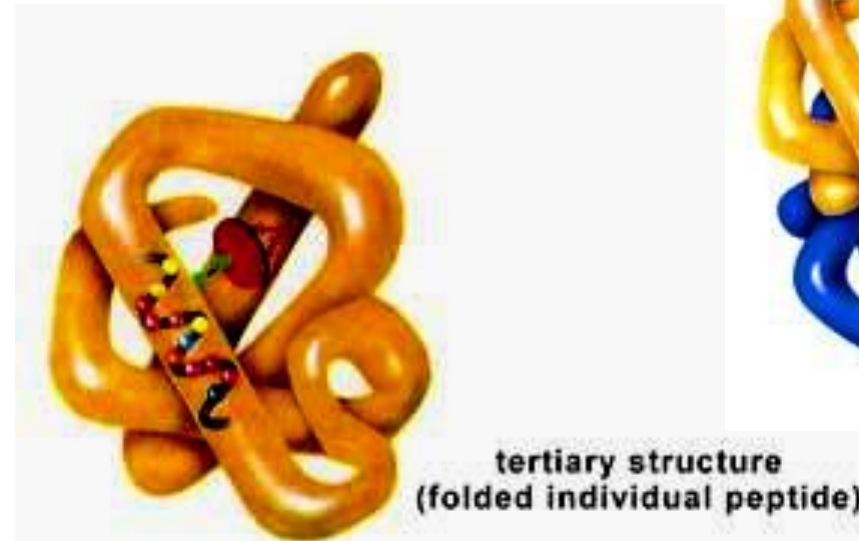
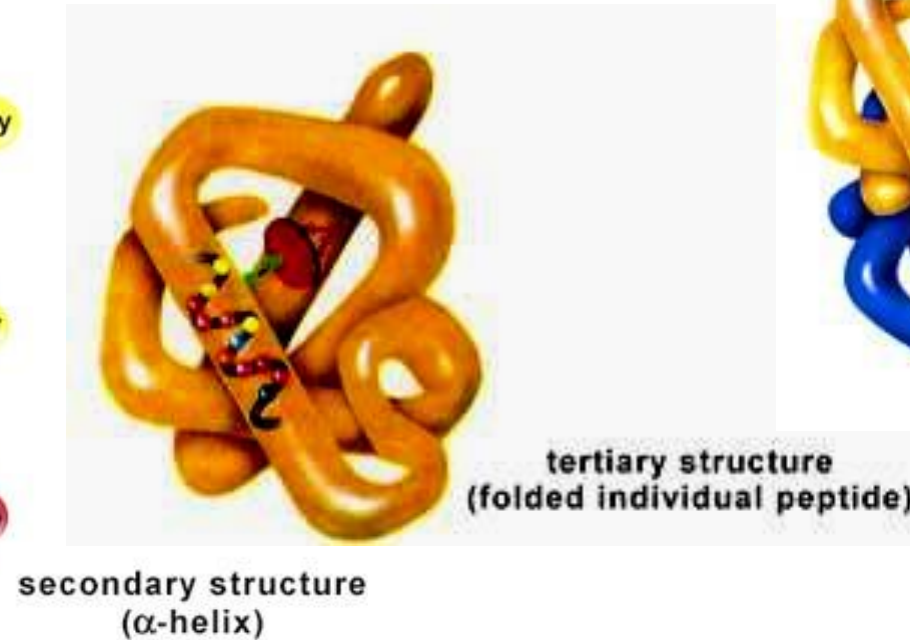
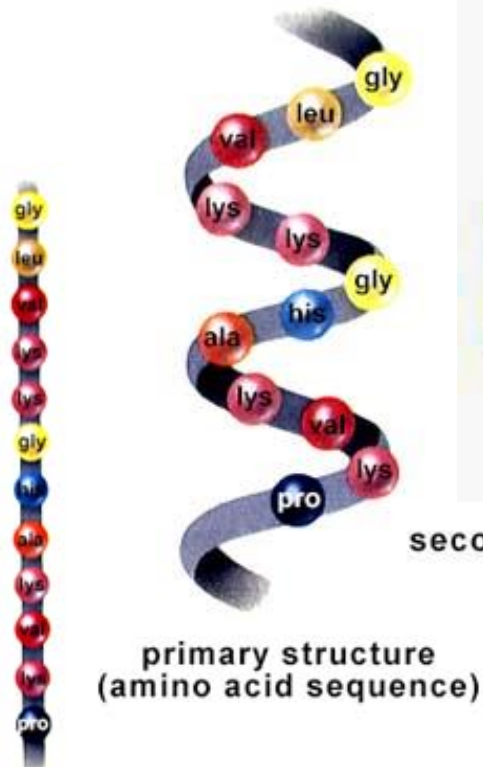
- A protein is a **polypeptide**. However, it is a very difficult problem to understand the **functions** of a protein given only the polypeptide sequence
- **Protein folding** is an open problem. The 3D structure depends on many variables
- Improper folding of a protein is believed to be the cause of diseases, e.g. mad cow disease



# Hierarchy of protein structures



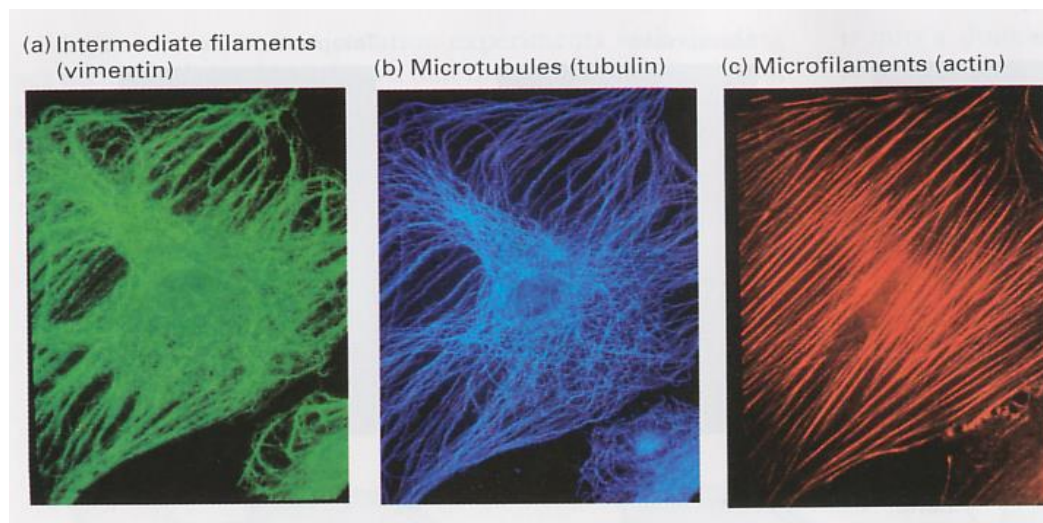
DNA sequence : 5' - ATG CCC TGC TTG GCC ... - 3'  
RNA sequence : 5' - AUG CCC UGC UUG GCC ... - 3'  
Protein sequence : M P C L A ...



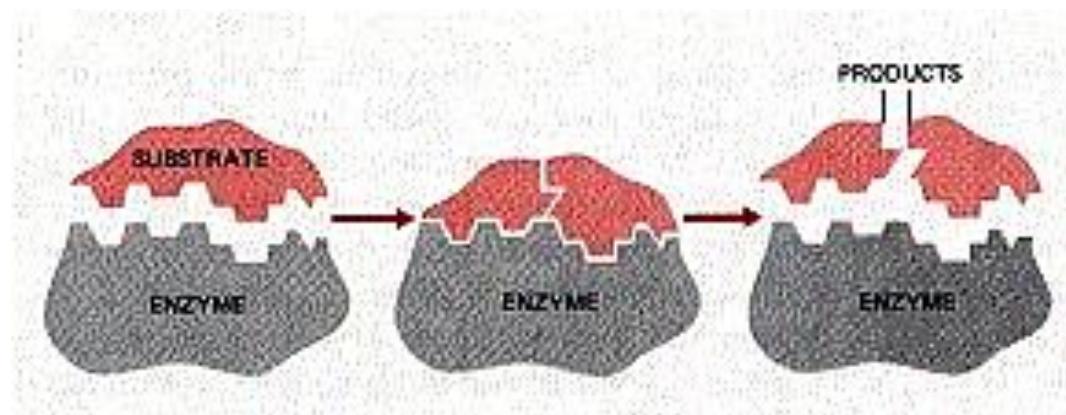




# Protein functions



e.g. Structural role of proteins



e.g. Proteins as enzymes (catalysts)





# Appendix C: Replication and Reproduction



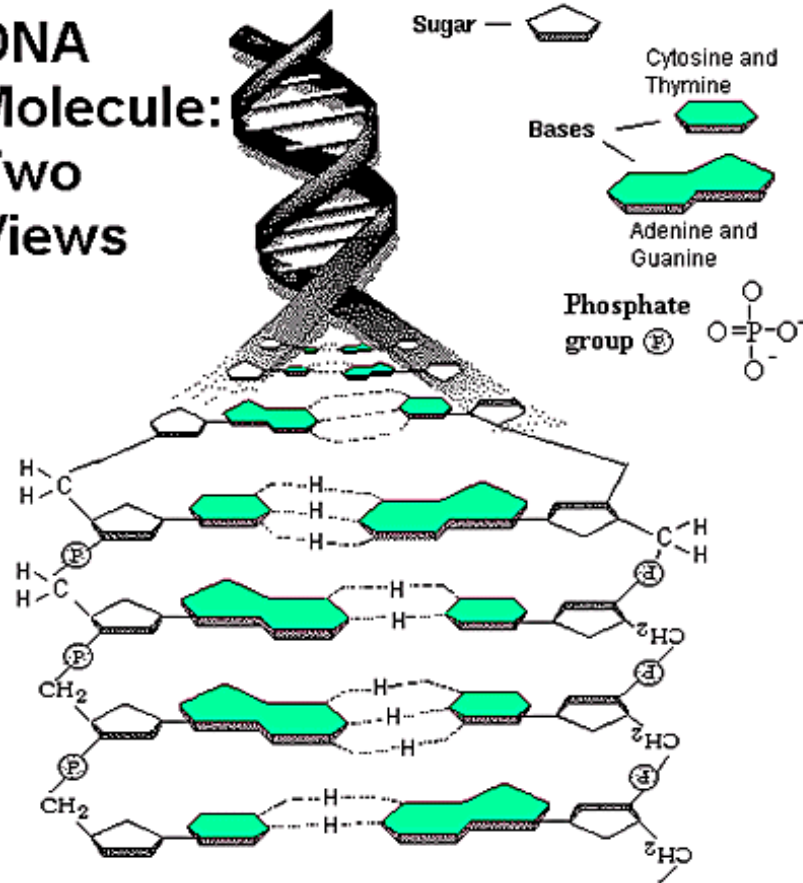




# DNA replication: complementary strands



DNA  
Molecule:  
Two  
Views

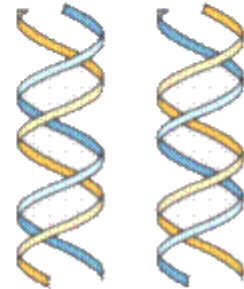


Semiconservative replication

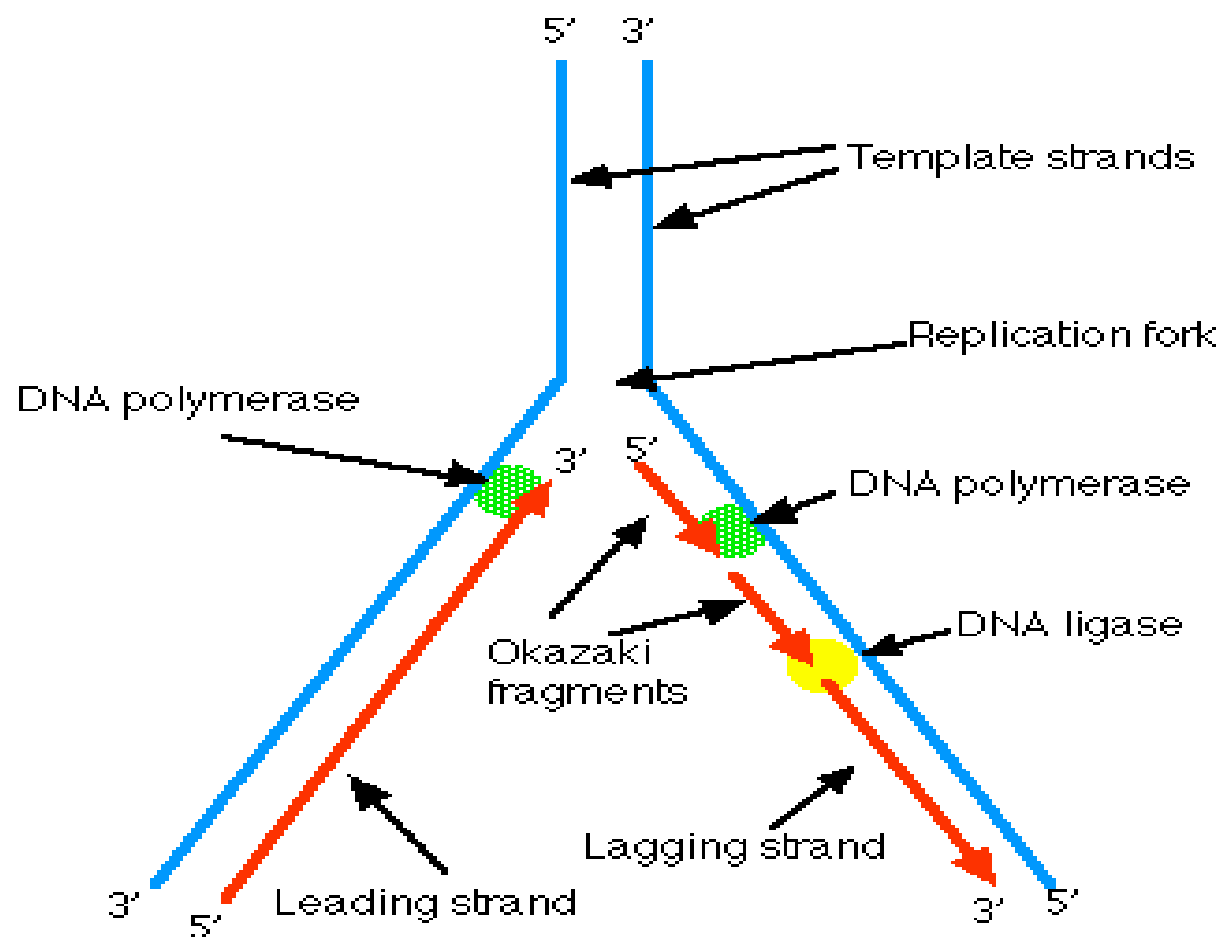
Original DNA  
Helix



DNA helices  
after one round  
of replication



# DNA replication process



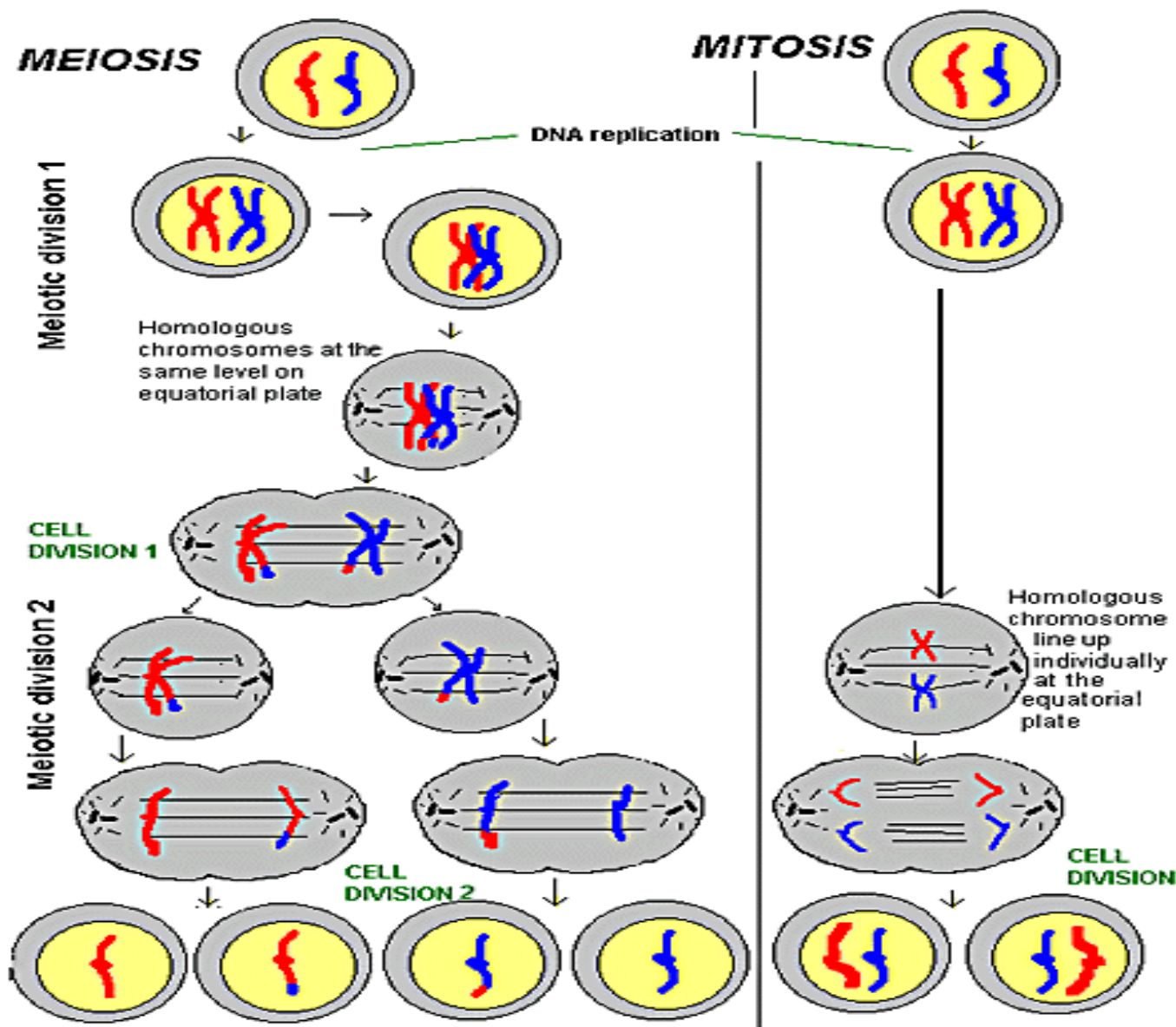


# Sexual reproduction



- To reproduce, eukaryotes must first create special cells called **gametes** (eggs and sperms) that then fuse to form the beginning of a new organism.
- **Meiosis** is a specialized type of cell division that occurs during the formation of gametes. It is really just two cell divisions in sequence. Each of these sequences maintains strong similarities to mitosis.
  - Meiosis serves to reduce the chromosome number for that particular organism by half.



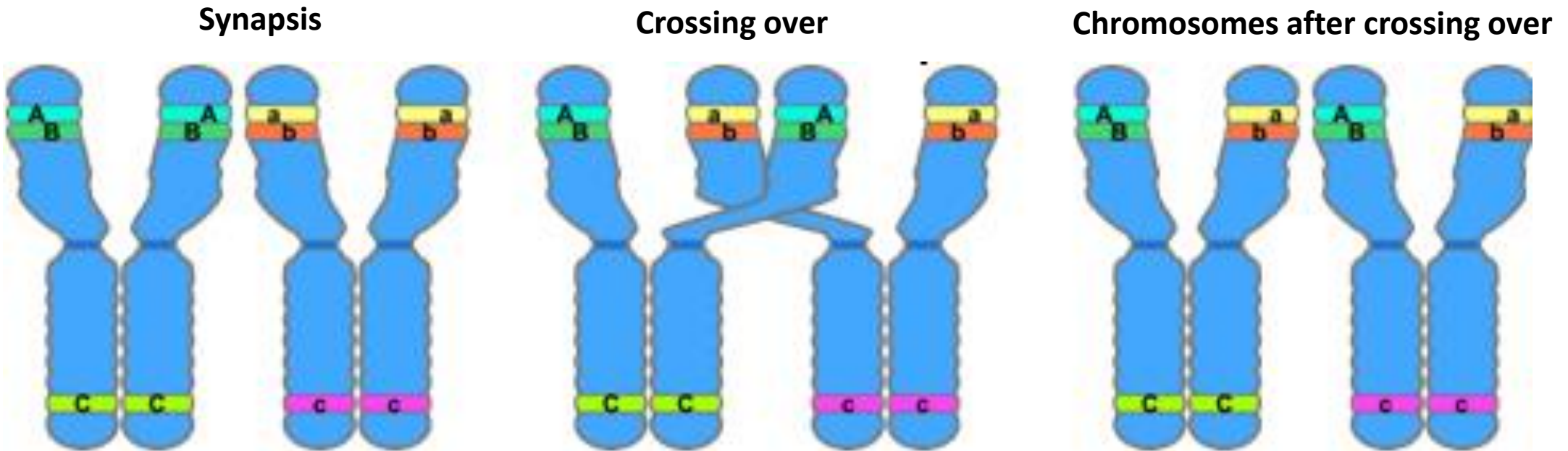




# Genetic recombination - diversity



- Genetic recombination refers to a large-scale rearrangement of a DNA molecule.





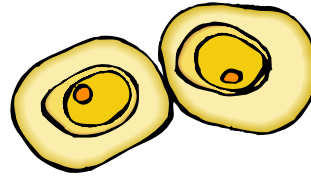
# Cell differentiation



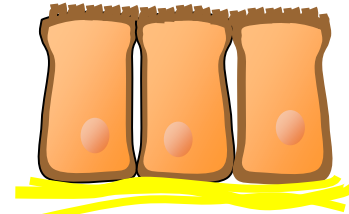
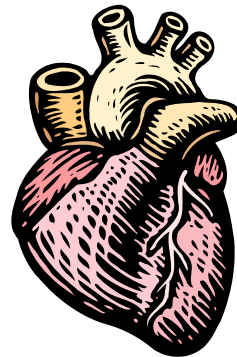
- **Differentiation** is the process by which an unspecialized cell becomes specialized into one of the many cells that make up the body



Connective-tissue cell



Cartilage cells



Epithelial cells







# Cell differentiation (continued)



- During differentiation, certain genes are turned on, or become **activated**, while other genes are switched off, or **inactivated**
- This process is intricately regulated

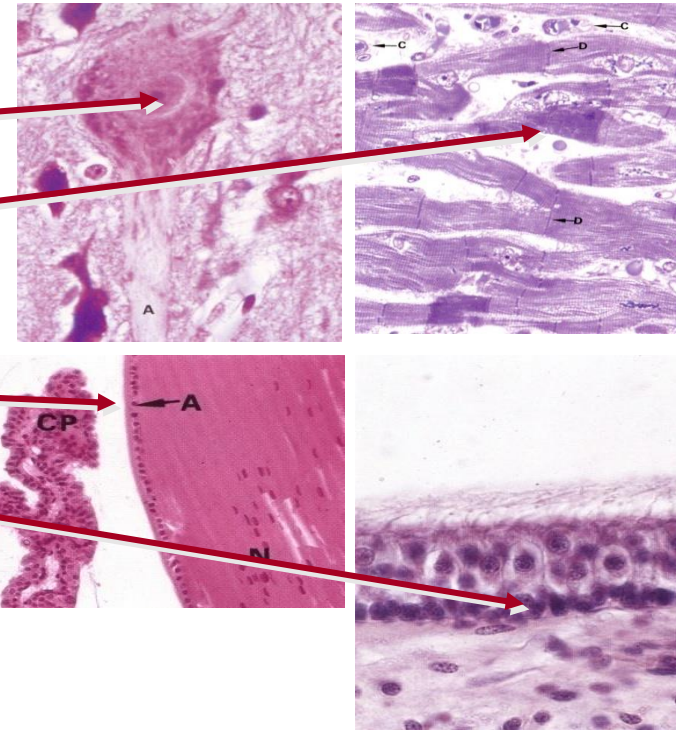
- e.g.

Nerve cells

Cardiac muscle cells

Lens cells of the eye

Auditory hair cells of the ear







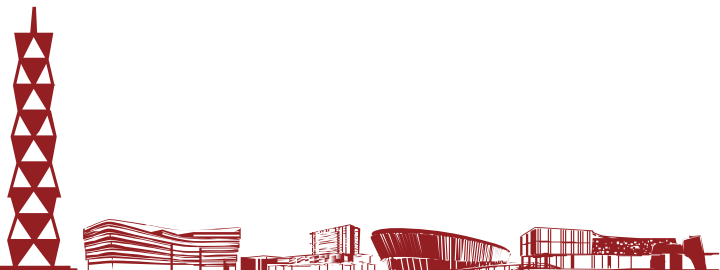
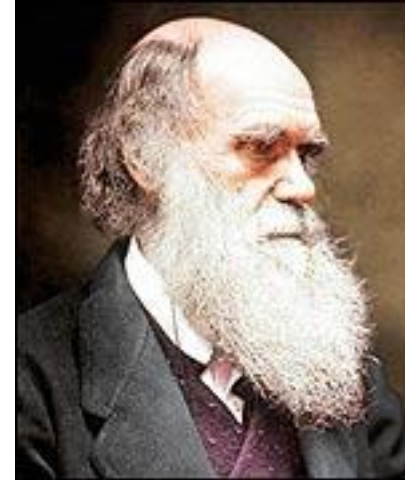
# Appendix D: Genetic Variation



# What is the difference between man and ape?



- Man and chimpanzee have a genomic similarity of greater than 95%
- What accounts for differences between species?





# Physical traits and variances



- Individual variation among a species occurs in populations of all sexually reproducing organisms
- Individual variations range from hair and eye color to less subtle traits such as susceptibility to malaria
- Physical variation is the reason we can pick out our friends in a crowd. However, most physical traits and variation can only be seen at a cellular and molecular level





# Genetic variation



- Despite the wide range of physical variation, genetic variation between individuals is quite small
- Out of 3 billion nucleotides, only roughly 3 million base pairs (0.1%) are different between individual genomes of humans
- Although there is a finite number of possible variations, the number is so high ( $4^{3,000,000}$ ) that we can assume no two individual people have the same genome
- What is the cause of this genetic variation?





# Sources of genetic variation



- **Mutations** are rare errors in the DNA replication process that occur at random
- When mutations occur, they affect the genetic sequence and create genetic variation between individuals
- Most mutations do not create beneficial changes and actually kill the individual
- Although mutations are the source of all new genes in a population, they are so **rare** that there must be another process at work to account for the large amount of diversity



# Variation through mutation



Common Sequence



Variations



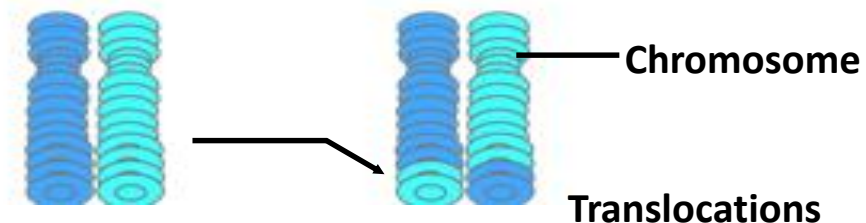
Polymorphism



Deletions



Insertions



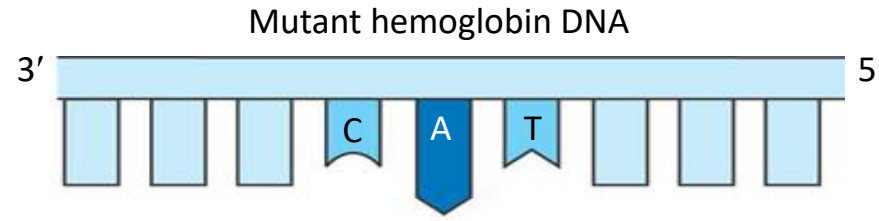
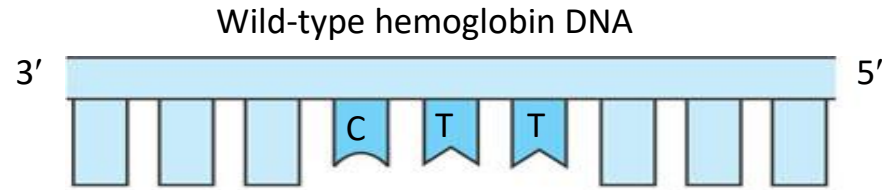
Chromosome

Translocations

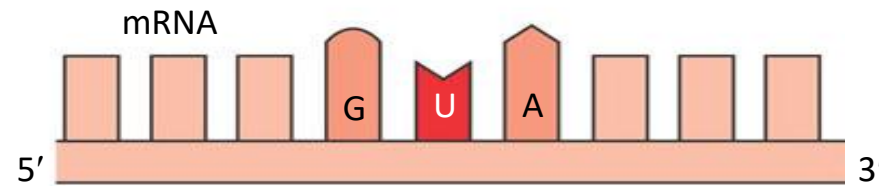
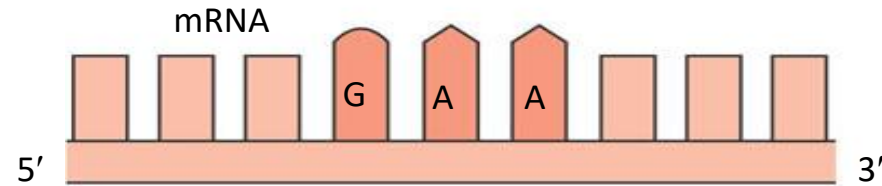
- Single Nucleotide Polymorphism or SNP



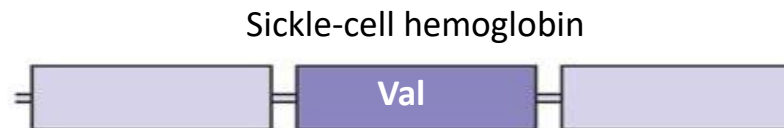
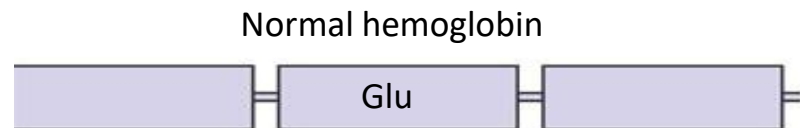
# The molecular basis of sickle-cell disease: a point mutation



In the DNA, the mutant template strand has an A where the wild-type template has a T.



The mutant mRNA has a U instead of an A in one codon.



The mutant (sickle-cell) hemoglobin has a valine (Val) instead of a glutamic acid (Glu).







# More sources of genetic variation



- **Recombination** is the shuffling of genes that occurs through sexual mating and is the main source of genetic variation
- Recombination occurs via a process called **crossing over** in which genes switch positions with other genes during meiosis
- Recombination means that new generations inherit **random combinations** of genes from both parents
- The recombination of genes creates a seemingly endless supply of genetic variation within a species
- Other sources: genome rearrangement, gene duplication, etc.

